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THE

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OF

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FOR THE

DIFFUSION OF USEFUL KNOWLEDGE.

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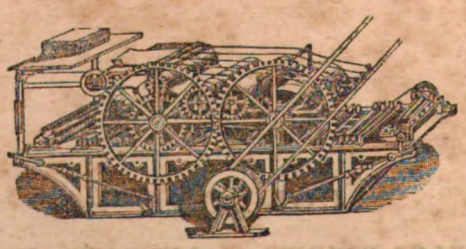
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270.] PUBLISHED EVERY SATURDAY. [JUNE 18, 1836.

THE GIRAFFES AT THE ZOOLOGICAL GARDENS.



[Giraffes in the Zoological Gardens, with one of the Keepers.]

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THE arrival of four giraffes together in Europe forms an era in the annals of natural history. The honour is due to the Zoological Society of London, in whose archives the record of this event will bear testimony to well-directed zeal in the promotion of scientific knowledge. Nor can we refuse our meed of praise to the individual through whose exertions these rare and extraordinary animals were captured in a distant region of the globe, transported over deserts and arid sands, and, lastly, across the sea in health and safety to our northern shores. The letter of M. Thibaut to the secretary of the Society, which we transcribe from its 'Scientific Proceedings,' will be read with great interest, and the more so as it communicates much valuable information respecting the habits of these animals in their native country. The letter is dated January 2, 1836:—

"Having learned, on my arrival at Malta, that you were desirous of information on the subject of the four giraffes which the Society has entrusted to my care, I regard it as a duty to transmit to you a short statement, by which you will become aware of the difficulties that I encountered in obtaining and preserving for the Society these interesting animals, which are now, I hope, altogether out of danger.

"Instructed by Colonel Campbell, his majesty's consul-general in the Levant, and desirous of rendering available for the purposes of the Zoological Society the knowledge which I had acquired by twelve years' experience in travelling in the interior of Africa, I quitted Cairo on the 15th of April, 1834. After sailing up the Nile as far as Wadi Halfa (the second cataract), I took camels, and proceeded to Debbat, a province of Dongolah, whence, on the 14th of July, I started for the desert of Kordofan.

"Being perfectly acquainted with the locality, and on friendly terms with the Arabs of the country, I attached them to me still more by the desire of profit. All were desirous of accompanying me in my pursuit of the giraffes, which, up to that time, they had hunted solely for the sake of the flesh, which they eat, and of the skin, from which they make bucklers and sandals. I availed myself of the emulation which prevailed among the Arabs, and as the season was far advanced and favourable, I proceeded immediately to the south-west of Kordofan.

"It was on the 15th of August that I saw the first two giraffes. A rapid chase, on horses accustomed to the fatigues of the desert, put us in possession, at the end of three hours, of the largest of the two: the mother of one of those now in my charge. Unable to take her alive, the Arabs killed her with blows of the sabre, and cutting her to pieces, carried the meat to the head-quarters which we had established in a wooded situation: an arrangement necessary for our own comforts, and to secure pasturage for the camels of both sexes which we had brought with us in aid of the object of our chase. We deferred until the morrow the pursuit of the young giraffe, which my companions assured me they would have no difficulty in again discovering. The Arabs are very fond of the flesh of this animal. I partook of their repast. The live embers were quickly covered with slices of the meat, which I found to be excellent eating.

"On the following day, the 16th of August, the Arabs started at daybreak in search of the young one, of which we had lost sight not far from our camp. The sandy nature of the soil of the desert is well adapted to afford indications to a hunter, and in a very short time we were on the track of the animal which was the object of our pursuit. We followed the traces with rapidity and in silence, cautious to avoid alarming the creature while it was yet at a distance from us. Unwearied myself, and anxious to act in the same manner as the Arabs, I followed them impatiently, and at nine o'clock in the morning I had the happiness to find myself in possession of the giraffe. A premium was given to the hunter whose horse had first come up with the animal, and this reward is the more merited as the laborious chase is pursued in the midst of brambles and of thorny trees.

"Possessed of this giraffe, it was necessary to rest for three or four days, in order to render it sufficiently tame. During this period an Arab constantly holds it at the end of a long cord. By degrees it becomes accustomed to the presence of man, and takes a little nourishment. To furnish milk for it, I had brought with me female camels. It became gradually reconciled to its condition, and was soon willing to follow, in short stages, the route of our caravan.

"This first giraffe, captured at four days' journey to the south-west of Kordofan, will enable us to form some judgment as to its probable age at present; as I have observed its growth and its mode of life. When it first came into my hands, it was necessary to insert a finger into its mouth, in order to deceive it into a belief that the nipple of its dam was there: then it sucked freely. According to the opinion of the Arabs, and to the length of time that I have had it, this first giraffe cannot, at the utmost, be more than nineteen months old. Since I have had it, its size has fully doubled.

"The first run of the giraffe is exceedingly rapid. The swiftest horse, if unaccustomed to the desert, could not come up with it unless with extreme difficulty. The Arabs accustom their coursers to hunger and to fatigue; milk generally serves them for food, and gives them power to continue their exertions during a very long run. If the giraffe reaches a mountain, it passes the heights with rapidity: its feet, which are like those of a goat, endow it with the dexterity of that animal; it bounds over ravines with incredible power; horses cannot, in such situations, compete with it.

"The giraffe is fond of a wooded country. The leaves of trees are its principal food. Its conformation allows of its reaching their tops. The one of which I have previously spoken as having been killed, by the Arabs, measured twenty-one French feet in height from the ears to the hoofs. Green herbs are also very agreeable to this animal, but its structure does not admit of its feeding on them in the same manner as our domestic animals, such as the ox and the horse. It is obliged to straddle widely; its two fore-feet are gradually stretched widely apart from each other, and its neck being then bent into a semicircular form, the animal is thus enabled to collect the grass. But on the instant that any noise interrupts its repast, the animal raises itself with rapidity, and has recourse to immediate flight.

"The giraffe eats with great delicacy, and takes its food leaf by leaf, collecting them from the trees by means of its long tongue. It rejects the thorns, and in this respect differs from the camel. As the grass on which it is now fed is cut for it, it takes the upper part only, and chews it until it perceives that the stem is too coarse for it. Great care is required for its preservation, and especially great cleanliness.

"It is extremely fond of society, and is very sensible. I have observed one of them shed tears when it no longer saw its companions, or the persons who were in the habit of attending to it.

"I was so fortunate as to collect five individuals at Kordofan; but the cold weather of December, 1834, killed four of them in the desert on the route to Dongolah, my point of departure for Bebbah. Only one was preserved; this was the first specimen that I obtained, and the one of which I have already spoken. After twenty-two days in the desert, I reached Dongolah on the 6th of January, 1835.

"Unwilling to return to Cairo without being really useful to the Society, and being actually at Dongolah,

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I determined on resuming the pursuit of giraffes. I remained for three months in the desert, crossing it in all directions. Arabs in whom I could confide accompanied me, and our course was through districts destitute of everything. We had to dread the Arabs of Darfour, of which country I saw the first mountain. We were successful in our researches. I obtained three giraffes, smaller than the one I already possessed. Experience suggested to me the means of preserving them.

"Another trial was reserved for me:—that of transporting the animals, by bark, from Wadi Halfa to Cairo, Alexandria, and Malta. Providence has enabled me to surmount all difficulties. The most that they suffered was at sea, during their passage, which lasted twenty-four days, with the weather very tempestuous.

"I arrived at Malta on the 21st of November. We were there detained in quarantine for twenty-five days, after which, through the kind care of Mr. Bourchier, these valuable animals were placed in a good situation, where nothing is wanting for their comfort. With the view of preparing them for the temperature of the country to which they will eventually be removed, I have not thought it advisable that they should be clothed. During the last week the cold has been much greater than they have hitherto experienced; but they have, thanks to the kindness of Mr. Bourchier, everything that can be desired.

"These four giraffes, three males and one female, are so interesting and so beautiful, that I shall exert myself to the utmost to be of use to them. It is possible that they may breed; already I observe in them some tendency towards mutual attachment. They are capable of walking for six hours a day without the slightest fatigue.—G. T."

To convey these beautiful animals from Malta to London, the Society made arrangements with the proprietors of the Manchester steam-vessel, engaged at that time in the service of the Prince of Portugal, to proceed, after her discharge at Lisbon, to Malta, and there take them on board, proper accommodations having been fitted up for them. By this vessel they arrived in London on the 23rd of May, and were placed in a temporary place of security, whence in the early part of the morning of the 25th, at about three o'clock, they set out to walk to their final destination, the gardens in Regent's Park. Accompanied by M. Thibaut, and several Nubian attendants, they proceeded quietly along, led by halters, without evincing the least show of resistance or alarm; indeed their gentleness and docility were beyond expectation. Few persons at that early hour were abroad, but those who met them on the road gazed with wonder on the novel spectacle—four tall strange animals moving along, or every now and then stopping to gaze around them, stretching out their long necks to their full extent, led by Nubian keepers, dressed in their Abyssinian costume, together with a mingled retinue of attendants, the whole forming a singular and striking cavalcade. Arrived at the gardens they entered their dwelling without the slightest difficulty; nor did the novelty of their situation, or the presence of strangers, in the least disturb them. It must not be supposed that the gentleness thus manifested arose from weakness or fatigue; on the contrary, they were in excellent health and condition, with their spotted coats smooth and glossy, and as playful as fawns, animation sparkling in their large dark eyes, and every action evincing ease and activity. Their walk is quick, and they get over the ground well, but there is something apparently awkward in their pace, owing to the shortness of the body, and to the circumstance of the hind feet passing the fore feet by two hands' breadth at every step, and that a little to the outside, while the neck is carried obliquely, the line of direction running from the haunches to the withers, and thence forwards to the head, without any angle. This fact we first noticed in the giraffe at Paris, and it has not been faithfully given in any drawing of the animal we have yet seen. In this attitude the neck does not appear graceful, but it is far otherwise when the animal elevates its head to gaze around it, or to take its food; it is then beautifully swan-like. The difficulty which the giraffe experiences in putting its mouth to the ground, we saw singularly exemplified in the endeavours of these individuals to take a lump of sugar from the hands of the Nubian attendants placed upon the floor, which indeed after many awkward attempts they failed to accomplish. Of sugar we may here observe that they are very fond, and will follow their attendants up and down their apartment when shown a portion of this tempting sweetmeat, trying to gain the possession of it by insinuating their long slender tongue or upper lip into the hands of the person who holds it. In their play we have several times noticed that they strike out with the fore limbs, and doubtless they use this action with effect in self-defence when attacked by beasts of prey. Of the peculiarities of the giraffe, and the general account of its natural history, some details will be found in the first volume of this Magazine (pages 125, 187, and 308), to which we refer our readers. The present individuals are young, and between ten and eleven feet in height; the markings are of a dark or chocolate brown, and there is a tuft of hair on each of the fore-knees.

Working Men.—The expression working class, or working men, must mean either those men who physically work without thinking, in which case it will not be very acceptable to those who arrogate it, and a wind or water-mill working day and night would be the beau ideal of a working man, or it must mean men who work and think. But if this is meant, who is not a working man and who is? Is the physician who follows his vocation at any hour of the day, the lawyer who sits up late at night, the scholar who sacrifices his health to his science, a conscientious editor whose work never rests, are all these, who rise much earlier and go to bed much later than those who call themselves working men par excellence, no working men? Is a Humboldt, who braves in the pursuit of his noble and chivalrous career, fever, beasts of prey and insupportable insects, under a thousand privations; is a Champollion, who exposes himself to the burning sun of Egypt to learn the lessons of the past; is a Parry, who dares the ices of the pole; a Davy, a Herschel, who enjoy no rest so regular, no health so sound, as that of any farmer—are all these not hard-working men? The division is entirely artificial and untenable; and therefore, if acted upon, highly mischievous. It is to be regretted, then, that so fictitious a thing is made, not unfrequently, a ground of political division, as though the interests of those who apply their mind to the changing and moulding of materials were separated from those who consume their productions, or assist them essentially in discovering the best way of mastering the material.—*Dr. F. Lieber, Plan of Education for Girard College for Orphans.*

Threshing Machines.—Threshing by the flail can only be done by robust, athletic men. If the superior strength of these men can be employed in another way to produce corn, and the decrepit, the women, and children, and two or three old horses, can do it as well, and it is found equally to answer the purpose of the farmer, why should it not be adopted? Does it matter if ten persons are employed for one day, or one person ten days? A wet day sometimes happens, when neither horses nor men can work in the fields: at the threshing-machine they can be usefully employed. By the want of necessary supplies of corn at market, corn will rise; for it is supply and demand which regulates our markets, and establishes prices and rents. A demand for more corn being made, the prices rise; the threshing machines are set to work to obtain the then wanted grain; the market is supplied, and the corn drops in price, and thus the community is benefited.—*The Golden Farmer.*

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NATIONAL GALLERIES FOR THE FINE ARTS AT MUNICH.

THE GLYPTOTHEK.



[Sculpture Gallery, Munich.]

IN no country of Europe is there so much encouragement for the fine arts as in Bavaria. The present king, an enthusiastic admirer of all that relates to architecture, painting, and statuary, devotes nearly the whole of his private funds to the adorning of his capital with fine buildings, and filling them with the productions of the best modern painters and sculptors. Within these few years two grand edifices have been erected, designed to contain the king's collections of statues and pictures —the Glyptothek and the Pinacothek.

The Glyptothek, which was the first commenced, is now completed. It is a square building round an open court, and in the front is a splendid portico of twelve Ionic columns; the windows all open into the central court. This building was erected by the present king of Bavaria, out of his yearly savings, and was commenced when he was Crown Prince, for the purpose of containing his collection of statues. Mrs. Jamieson, in her 'Visits and Sketches at Home and Abroad,' was the first to make the English reader acquainted with the vast treasures of art at Munich, and with the merits of the modern German painters. She has given a minute description of the whole of this splendid building. "Just returned," she says, "from my first visit to the Glyptothek, with my imagination still filled with the 'blaze, the splendour, and the symmetry,' excited as I never thought it could be excited again, after seeing the Vatican; but this is the Vatican in miniature. Can it be possible that this glorious edifice was planned by a young prince, and erected out of his yearly savings? I am wonder-struck! I was not prepared for anything so spacious, so magnificent, so perfect in taste and arrangement."

The portico leads to a fine entrance hall, from which two side doors conduct to the galleries, (twelve in number,) from 50 to 130 feet in length. This building was designed by Baron Klenze, one of many distinguished architects at Munich, and who is also the favourite artist, companion, and friend of the king. The objects of sculpture in the different galleries are so arranged as to form a progressive history of the rise and decline of the art. The most important examples, however, contained in this magnificent collection are the Egina Marbles, which every lover of art must regret were not purchased by this country along with the Elgin Marbles now in the British Museum, which would have made our collection, of the finest time of Greek art, the most perfect extant. These marbles says the author of the description of the Elgin and Phigaleian Marbles in the 'Library of Entertaining Knowledge,' "were probably executed in the age immediately preceding the time of Pericles; and exhibit an advance in the art of sculpture which, however interrupted by a succession of destructive wars, was about to approach a perfection of taste which no country has since surpassed. Outlines from a set of casts from these marbles, deposited in the Liverpool Royal Institution, have been recently engraved from drawings by Mr. Edwin Lyon." There are many other very valuable specimens of ancient art in the Munich collection, particularly the Barbarini Faun. One room is devoted to the works of modern sculptors; and this contains, amongst other celebrated works, the Paris of Canova, and the Adonis of Thorwaldsen. The ranges of galleries, forming the two sides of the square, are joined by two splendid banquetting halls, which are highly ornamented by designs in fresco from classical subjects by Cornelius, one of the best of the Bavarian painters. One of the most remarkable features of this building is the system of ornament which has been adopted by the Baron Klenze. Hitherto it has appeared

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to be the object of the architects of galleries, that the walls and decorations should be plain and subdued so as not to interfere with the objects exhibited. M. Klenze, however, conceived that this was an error, and has enriched his rooms with the most splendid decorations both of coloured arabesques, and gilt and stuccoed ornaments in relief, each room partaking of the style of the school to which it is appropriated, and being ornamented by some admirable basso-relievos, designed and executed by Schwanthaler, the celebrated German sculptor. The experiment by all must be considered as successful; and the objects of art receive increased interest from the ornaments and the harmonious colouring by which they are surrounded, and, as precious things, seem, as it were, enshrined in a beautiful casket.



[Arabesque from the Room of the Gods in the Glyptothek, Munich.]

The labour and genius which have been employed in the designing the ornaments and decorations of this splendid building, have had the effect of introducing a new style of decoration, which has already shown itself in the private houses and manufactures at Munich. The contrast between this building and the appearance of the vast hall at the British Museum, built for the reception of the Elgin Marbles, nay, even of the Galleries of the Vatican and of the Louvre, is most striking, and tends to prove that the Baron Klenze has been successful in his bold and arduous task.

ARTS OF ANCIENT EGYPT—GLASS AND PORCELAIN.

(*Abridged from* '*Egyptian Antiquities*,' vol. ii.)

The art of fabricating glass is of high antiquity; and it was probably known in Egypt as early as in any other country, and perhaps earlier. Beads of glass, generally coloured blue, probably with copper, are found on many mummies, and we have sometimes seen larger and more irregular pieces that have been taken out of mummy-boxes. Other ornaments of a coarse kind are also found made of glass*. It has been conjectured, and as we think with great probability, that the ornaments placed in the ears of the crocodiles, which Herodotus calls "stone pendants, made by fusion or melting," were of glass. It may be well to remark that the strict examination of M. G.-St. Hilaire confirms Herodotus even in so minute a matter as the piercing of the crocodile's ears. He found the anterior part of the covering of the ear on a mummy crocodile pierced as if for the purpose of putting a pendant in it.

A kind of ancient porcelain is found in great quantities in Egypt. Sometimes it is covered with a species of enamel or varnish. It was used for making a variety of small figures, such as we may see represented in Denon's ninety-sixth plate, most of which are probably representations of some form of deity. There is one, which is a rare specimen, being a figure of the ichneumon or mangouste, in what Denon calls touchstone. It was the only representation that he met with in Egypt of this sacred animal. He purchased it in the island of Elephantine, where he found a woman wearing it suspended from her neck. We find the beetle also made of porcelain of all colours, of touchstone, cornelian, jasper, pot-stone, verde antico, and even baked clay. Bonaparte had a jasper scarabæus in his collection, with hieroglyphics on the under side: Denon says that this scarabæus had evidently been worked with the wheel. It is somewhat singular that the under sides of the scarabæi almost always differ one from another in the ornaments upon them.

The art of baking clay and fixing the varnish strongly upon it, must be considered as an ancient Egyptian art; vessels of this description, with their colours in high perfection, were found in the great tomb that Belzoni opened at Thebes.

A curious black substance has been found in some mummies of the more costly kind, which has often been incorrectly taken for a kind of stone: it is shaped something like a finger, only it is flat, but still rounded at the ends and sides; the length is from three to six inches, and the breadth half an inch or more. Sometimes two are united, and present an appearance like the index and second finger of the hand stretched out close to one another. Professor John observes† that

* Belzoni.

† Appendix to Minutoli, p. 352.—Mr. E. W. Lane observes that there are many pairs of fingers, of the form here described, of porphyry and other kinds of stone.

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this substance is either obsidian or glass, and that it appears to be glass from its having a less degree of hardness than obsidian, and being more fusible. He considers it to be true glass coloured with iron. On the exterior it is of a dull appearance, and in parts is gilded.

As we find so many of the arts represented on the ancient paintings of Egypt, we might expect to find glass-making among them. Rosellini's plates (M. C. lii.) certainly appear to represent men blowing glass, but we would not positively assert this explanation to be correct. Still the antiquity of glass-making in Egypt is proved decisively by the evidence already adduced, and it wants no confirmation.

Pliny informs us (xxxvi. 26) that some sailors having landed on the shore of Phœnicia, at the mouth of the Belus, and wishing to cook their provisions, placed some masses of salt (of which their cargo consisted) under their pots to support them, there being no stones on the coast. The heat formed the salt and the sand of the shore into a transparent liquid mass, and thus gave origin to the substance called glass (vitrum.) But though this fact may be considered a truth, so far as to indicate the generally received opinion of the high antiquity of the Phœnician glass-houses, it is unsupported by the kind of evidence which determines the high antiquity of the art in Egypt—the specimens which have come down to our own day.

It seems not unlikely that Egypt was the parent country of the art, whence it was diffused among the Phœnicians, Greeks and Romans. During the latter part of the Roman Republic, and under the early emperors, the wealthy Romans made great use of glass in a variety of forms as an article of luxury. A great part of it was imported from Egypt and Phœnicia, and the art itself was also transplanted into Italy. From Italy it is probable that the Romans carried it into Spain and Gaul, for the art of glass-making was known in these countries in Pliny's time; and thus the remote parts of Europe received from the banks of the Nile the principles of a branch of industry which, revived and perfected in modern times, has contributed perhaps as much as any other to the comfort of life and the progress of science. M. Boudet has collected a great number of passages, principally from the Latin writers, which show that glass was very extensively used by the Romans, and that the art of the Egyptians and Phœnicians had succeeded in giving it a variety of forms that ministered to convenience or luxury. Drinking-glasses, burning-glasses, mirrors, and artificial gems, were all made of glass long before the time of Pliny. Glass was also let into the roof of the bathing-chambers at Rome, in order to light the rooms—a use which is still made of it at the present day in Egypt. Coloured glass was also used to ornament the walls and pavements of the houses of the rich. The art of glass-making still exists in Egypt, but its products are limited to clumsy bottles, pieces of glass slightly rounded for setting in the ceiling of baths, a kind of jug or decanter which serves for a lamp, and other similar coarse articles.

An enormous quantity of broken pottery is found about the sites of old Egyptian towns. It would argue no great skill in the ancient inhabitants of this country merely to show that they could bake vessels of clay—an art not unknown even to some tribes of the North American Indians, who yet appear to have no great taste for manufacturing. But it is the form of such objects of domestic use that deserves our particular attention, as we hold it to be impossible that a nation can be low in the scale of social refinement, where the forms of their furniture and utensils are such as have obviously been designed with the view of giving pleasure to the eye. In the tombs particularly, and also on the sculptured monuments, we find ample proof that the Egyptians knew how to give a beautiful form to a common water pitcher, as well as to more elaborate articles of luxury.

War.—War undoubtedly occasions at first an immediate demand for men; it takes from the rich to give to the poor; and the rich make themselves ample amends by the increased value of property. Individuals with fixed incomes alone suffer from the first. In time, the labouring population having increased to the level of the war demand, wages fall again to their minimum; the rise of price stopping short of the increase of taxes, is no longer a compensation to farmers and manufacturers. After a few years of war an impatience for peace becomes universal; peace, however, like surgical operations, inflicts much immediate pain for the sake of prospective good; for all that part of the population fostered and supported by war, falling back on the rest, already not much at ease, makes them share in its distress. Farmers and manufacturers find they lose more by the decrease of consumption and the lowering of prices, than by the partial relief from taxation; individuals with fixed incomes are alone relieved. In due time, however, new branches of industry are discovered, new exchangeable produce brought to market; communications between countries long at war are opened by degrees; and production and consumption recover their equilibrium.—*M. Simond's Switzerland.*

IMPORTANCE OF THE CULTIVATION OF THE VINE IN FRANCE.

WHENEVER the commercial intercourse between France and England shall be regulated by better principles of economy than those under which it is at present conducted, wine will be the great staple with which the French will make their exchanges for English products. A few statements exhibiting the extent of production in this article in France will not therefore be devoid of interest. In presenting the following facts, it is necessary to state that we have borrowed largely from Dr. Bowring's 'Report on the Commercial Intercourse between France and Great Britain:'—

According to the estimates of M. Cavoleau, who obtained a prize given by the Institute for an elaborate work on the vineyards and vines of France, the quantity of vineyard-land in 1806 was about 4,142,600 English acres, and in 1827 about 4,265,000 acres. The calculations of the French Statistical Society show that in 1788 the number of acres in cultivation was 3,988,800 acres, and in 1829 about 5,104,000 acres. The vine-growers estimate the increase of vineyards since 1788 at 28 per cent.

France is divided, for fiscal purposes, into 76 wine-districts, in the same way that England is subdivided by the Board of Excise into districts termed "collections." The total superficies of France is not quite 53,000,000 hectares, the uncultivated lands amounting to nearly one-eighth of the whole. More than one-thirtieth part of France, including the waste lands, is cultivated in vineyards: this is equivalent to about a seventh part of England. If the counties of Bedford, Buckingham, Berks, Hertford, Huntingdon, Middlesex, Oxford, Rutland, Surrey, Westmoreland, and Worcester, were entirely covered with vineyards, the vineyards of France would exceed them in extent by 375 square miles. The distance from London to York is 196 miles; and if the land on each side of the road produced vines, instead of grain and food for cattle, each side of the road to the extent of above sixteen miles must be appropriated to this purpose in order to equal the breadth of land in France which is devoted to the vine; or, in other words, a tract of country nearly 200 miles long and 33 broad.

M. Cavoleau estimated the *value* of the annual produce of the vineyards at 21,615,572*l.*; the Sta-

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tistical Society at 28,040,000*l.*, and in 1788 at only 14,260,000*l.*

M. Cavoleau is of opinion that the *quantity* of wine produced in a year is 812,808,040 gallons, or about 200 gallons an acre. The estimate of the Statistical Society is 998,932,900 gallons, worth on an average 6¾*d.* per gallon; and the production of 1788 is estimated at about 610,750,000 gallons.

The wine-growers are supposed to be 1,800,000 in number.

A commission which was instituted a few years ago to examine into the operation of the tax on wine, which amounts to about 2,900,000*l.* per annum, assumed the total produce to be 924,020,000 gallons, and calculated by approximation the manner in which it was disposed of. They estimated that there was—

	Gallons.
Consumed by the Proprietors, not being subject to the Duty	198,000,000
Employed in the manufacture of Brandy	141,680,000
Loss and waste among the Growers .	91,344,000
Loss in conveyance, and in the hands of Dealers	44,000,000
Exported	24,530,000
For the manufacture of Vinegar . . .	11,000,000
Duty recovered on consumption is . .	308,000,000
And the fraudulent consumption is . .	105,466,000

The loss by evaporation was calculated at 12 per cent. per annum on the small, and 5 per cent on the large casks.

The total average export of wine is about 22,000,000 gallons, of an average value of nearly 2,000,000*l.*

The district in which the production of wine is carried on to the largest extent, and where the cultivation of the vine is the most advanced, and the qualities of the wine of the highest order, is the department of the Gironde. The superficies of the Gironde is 2,500,000 acres, and the extent of vineyards is equal to 350,000 English acres. The average produce is between 50,000,000 and 60,000,000 gallons, five-eighths of which are red, and three-eighths white wine, the whole, or nearly so, being suited to foreign demand. In very favourable years the production will amount to 75,000,000 gallons.

The value of vineyard property varies very much. The Monton estate, consisting of 135 acres, was sold in 1830 at the rate of 356*l.* per acre: this is the highest price ever paid. The estate of Lafitte, consisting of 262 acres, was sold in 1803 at the rate of 183*l.* 4*s.* per acre. Both these estates are situate in the Medoc district. About 5154 acres of Medoc wine estates have been sold in the present century; the average amount obtained was 64*l.* per acre. The demand from England for the fine Medoc wines has raised the value of the land which produces them.

The difference in the value of wine of the same vineyard varies exceedingly from one year to another, according to the season being favourable or unfavourable. The produce of Lafitte, Latour, and Chateau Margaux, which are the most esteemed vineyards, has been as low as 4*l.* a hogshead in a bad year. On the other hand, it has under different circumstances, been as high as 30*l.*

The condition of the population employed in vineyards is an interesting subject of inquiry. A communication addressed to Dr. Bowring by the members of the Chamber of Commerce at Rheims affords some information on this point, which we subjoin:—In the arrondissement of Rheims the number of vine-proprietors is 11,903. This large number of owners is owing to the division of property,—divisions so much the more multiplied, as there is not a single vine-dresser working at piece-work who does not rent some plot of vineyard, and thus the number of separate holders of vineyards is from 22,000 to 23,000. The small labouring proprietors are generally burdened with families, and not well off. They form in society an interesting and very laborious class, making the best appearance they can by severe economy. As soon as there is a promise of a good harvest, they purchase some vineyard-ground, often without prudence, and beyond their means. Afterwards, if bad years come on, they borrow to free themselves. If, in order that they may not mortgage their little property, they have recourse to usurers, they sign and renew bills on very disadvantageous terms. If they borrow on mortgage, the rate of interest is nominally 5 per cent. to the profit of the lender, but in reality from 6 to 7 per cent. at the cost of the borrower, on account of the expenses of the transaction.

In the district where the Macon and Beaujolais wines are produced, the receiver-general of the department of the Rhone gave Dr. Bowring the following account of the condition of the population whose interests are connected with the vineyards:—"Each hectare of vines (nearly 2½ acres) represents a capital of from 5000 to 6000 francs (200*l.* to 240*l.*) on an average. The expense of cultivation may be estimated, everything included, at about 200 francs (8*l.*) the hectare. The labour of each vigneron (vine-dresser) comprises nearly two hectares, and occupies a whole family. The cultivation of the vine is carried on by an equal division of the produce between the proprietors and the cultivators; the latter are, indeed, a species of participating colonists termed vignerons. This method, by establishing a community of interest between the proprietor and the labourer, tends to render their relations intimate and paternal. It attaches the cultivator to the ground, equally with the proprietor himself, and in some respects removes him from the class of dependent workmen. This class in general is not unprosperous: all those who have habits of labour and economy live at their ease. They begin to live rather better than they formerly did; their wants are attributed to the dearness of articles of consumption, of which they are deprived, such as meat, which they very rarely eat, and iron, of which they use large quantities for their farming. They sometimes suffer from the want of sale for their productions."

M. Joannot, the intelligent librarian of the Bordeaux public library, has afforded ample information respecting the moral and social condition of the population engaged in vineyards in the department of the Gironde. He states that the proprietors of vineyards producing wines of the first quality are rich, but the others are not in prosperous circumstances, and if they were not also engaged in farming it would be impossible to support themselves. M. Joannot says that, owing to the ambition of the small landowners to increase their possessions, they often purchase land at a price very much above its real value. The average daily pay of a vine-dresser is 1*s.* 4*d.*; a woman and child together gain about 7½*d.*; and the most skilful labourer, who provides himself with board and lodging, obtains from 1*s.* 8*d.* to 1*s.* 11*d.* per day. The vintager who is fed and lodged by his employer receives from 7*d.* to 1*s.* and sometimes 1*s.* 3*d.* per day. Women and children employed in the vineyards receive half the pay of the men. The workmen attached to the vine-press receive 4½*d.* per day more than the others. In the Medoc district the vineyard is cultivated on the following terms:—A certain portion of land, generally about seven acres, is divided according to agreement, and it is then managed by the vine-dresser. It is his duty to cut the vines,—prune the shoots,—to tie them up in bundles and carry them out of the vineyard; and he also attends to all the necessary processes which the successful culture of the vine demands, such as loosening the ground about the roots of the plants, and breaking up the ground in places which the plough could not reach: all the other expenses are at the proprietor's cost. The vine-dresser receives a sala-

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for himself and family of 6*l.* in money, besides half the cuttings, four barrels of a liquor called "piquette," made from the wastage of the wine-barrels, the remnants of the grapes, &c., a lodging, and a small garden. It is usual amongst the extensive growers of the Sauterne and Barsac grapes to employ whole families of vine-dressers to cultivate the crops at fixed wages. Each family is boarded and lodged on the estate, and has a small house, garden, hemp-field, and half the cuttings of the vines collected on the portion of ground they cultivate; and they have, moreover, permission to grow vegetables on several of the furrows in the vineyard. They receive besides, for each man and woman, fifty kilogrammes (110 lbs.) of rye, and half that quantity for each child. The head of the family receives an annual addition of from 2*l.* to 2*l.* 8*s.*; and a child, as soon as it commences working, is paid at the rate of 24*s.* a-year.

The manager of a large wine property in Medoc gives nearly a similar account of the condition of the vine-dressers on the estate under his superintendence. A vine-dresser who is the head of a family, and whose wife works, receives from 18*l.* to 20*l.* a-year in money, and is provided with four barrels of piquette, lodging, a garden, and land suited for the growth of hemp to supply the family with linen, and he has one-half of the refuse wood of that portion of the vineyard which he cultivates, besides medical attendance and medicines at the cost of the proprietor. This account adds that the ignorance of domestic economy amongst the vine-dressers is usually very great in the department of the Gironde. Another account says that instruction is but little diffused among them. Those who have learned to read when young, no longer think of reading at a more advanced age, although this is exactly the period when the greatest possible advantage would be derived from the perusal of useful books. When young, it is stated that they read nothing but the catechism and prayer-book, and a complaint is made that books of a more attractive kind are not circulated. As a consequence of this state of things, they are extremely fanatic, and having few sources of rational amusement and instruction, they either "go to bed early," for want of occupation, or spend their time at the public-houses. M. Joannot says they are in general endowed with great penetration, but they are ignorant, superstitious, devoid of religion, proud, setting at defiance the educated and the rich, selfish, little fond of work; yet he states that they are kind and hospitable, adding, however, that family ties have little weight amongst them—the sickness of one of their cattle distressing them more than that of their wife or child. Almost all of them live without care for the future, and die unregretted. This is a disastrous picture of the moral state of so numerous a class, and it will require many efforts to lift them out of that degradation in which they are placed by reason of their ignorance of their own nature, and the duties which are imposed on them. France will soon be covered with parish-schools, and the instruction which may be obtained there will, it is to be hoped, do something towards improving their character. We must add, that though thus spoken of, M. Joannot says "their sobriety is worthy of imitation."

In some parts of the department of the Gironde, where the elevation of the country renders the air extremely pure, the men are finely formed, have blue eyes and light hair, and pretty women are common among them. The population of these parts is much devoted to pleasure and dress, and they are of a gay temperament.

In the district where the Macon and Beaujolais wines are produced, M. Delahante, a public functionary, affirms that "it is certain that within the last twenty years civilization has made great progress among the population employed in the cultivation of the vine. There are few of the old people who know how to read, and few of the young who cannot do so."

M. de Brimont, of Rheims, says of the vine-dressers of the Champagne district, that as to education they are on an average with the population of France generally, "but they are more sober and orderly than the manufacturing classes in general."

State of the Fine Arts in Geneva.—M. de Candolle, Professor of botany at Geneva, but whose reputation is European, made use, in a course of lectures, of a very valuable collection of drawings of American plants, intrusted to him by a celebrated Spanish botanist, who having occasion for this collection sooner than was expected, sent for it back again. M. de Candolle having communicated the circumstances to his audience, with the expression of his regrets, some ladies, who attended the lectures, offered to copy, with the aid of their friends, the whole collection in a week, and the task was actually performed. The drawings, 860 in number, and filling thirteen folio volumes, were executed by 114 female artists; one of the ladies, indeed, did forty of them. In most cases the principal parts only of each plant are coloured, the rest only traced with accuracy; the execution in general very good, and in some instances quite masterly. There is not, perhaps, another town of 23,000 souls, where such a number of female artists, the greater part of course amateurs, could be found. Notwithstanding the wide dispersion of the drawings there were not any lost; and one of them having been accidentally dropped in the street, and picked up by a girl ten years old, was returned to M. de Candolle, copied by the child, and is no disparagement to the collection. On another occasion, several drawings were carried to a wrong house, but there too they found artists able and willing to do their part. This taste for the arts and for knowledge in general is universal.—*M. Simond's Switzerland.*

Division of Employments.—The same complete division of employments, which makes the English farmer nothing but a farmer, makes all the English people who are engaged in manufactures nothing but manufacturers. Further, whilst in France and America the capital of one man is frequently divided amongst several different manufactures, the attention of the English manufacturing capitalist is confined almost exclusively to a single object. Thus the English manufacturer is, as such, a man of single purpose, "a man with one idea." Hence that earnest, unremitting and successful pursuit of improvement, which is conspicuous in every branch of English manufacture. Another peculiarity in English manufactures seems worthy of remark—I allude to the congregation in one place of vast numbers who are engaged in the same branch of manufacture. In some cases, no doubt, the main seat of a particular fabric is determined by natural circumstances, such as abundance of coal or iron, or falling water; in other cases it appears to have been settled by accident. In every case, however, that congregation of numbers engaged in the same pursuit, by promoting the interchange of many persons' thoughts on one all engrossing subject, by exciting the inventive powers, by preventing a fortunate discoverer from monopolizing the use of his invention, and above all by stimulating competition, must have had a large share in the progress of improvement. In England, accordingly, all the most flourishing manufactures are carried on in large factories, with large capitals, and by a great number of hands, brought together for the purpose of distributing amongst them the several parts of each work. Those manufactures which are conducted by small fractions of capital and labour, such as the silk-works of Spitalfields and the lace-works of Buckinghamshire, are rapidly perishing; that is, they are in the course of being superseded by the use of large factories; those which have been mentioned, by the large silk-factories of Macclesfield and Manchester, and by the large lace-factories of Nottingham and Tiverton.—*England and America.*

*** The Office of the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge is at 59, Lincoln's Inn Fields.

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THE PENNY MAGAZINE

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RIEVAULX ABBEY.



[The Abbey of Rievaulx, from a Drawing by W. Westall, A.R.A.]

THIS fine monastic ruin is in the parish of Helmsley, North Riding of Yorkshire, half-way between Ripon and Scarborough, and about twenty-five miles north-east of York. Several interesting historical associations are connected with the immediate neighbourhood of Helmsley. Helmsley Castle was the retreat of Villiers, Duke of Buckingham, after his retirement from the court of Charles II. The adjacent town of Kirkby Moorside was the last scene of his humiliation, after health and fortune had been recklessly thrown away in a life of dissipation. Here he breathed his last, though not "in the worst inn's worst room," as the lines by Pope would infer, there being no tradition of the humble dwelling in which the fallen duke closed his career having been used at any period as a public-house. The event is thus briefly recorded in the parish register:—"Burials: April 17, 1687. Gorges Vilaus, lord dooke of Bookingham." Helmsley Castle stood a siege during the civil war, but was compelled to surrender to the Parliamentary forces, and was afterwards dismantled.

Ryland Abbey is an interesting ruin about five miles from Helmsley. It was a fine specimen of ecclesiastical architecture, founded by the monks of Furness, who were driven from their establishment in Lancashire during an incursion of the Scots. When the abbey was dissolved in 1540, its revenues amounted to 238*l.* 9*s.* 4*d.*

Rievaulx Abbey was one of the largest monastic structures in England. The probable length of the nave is estimated at 150 feet, and the whole length of the building at 330 or 340 feet. The choir is 144 feet long and 63 feet wide, and the transept 118 feet long and 33 feet wide. The church and the refectory are the principal parts of the edifice which remain. The abbey was founded in 1181 by Sir Walter Espee, whose only child, a son, was killed by a fall from his horse at Kirkham; in consequence of which the afflicted parent resolved to devote the greater part of his possessions to religious purposes, and he accordingly built abbeys at Rievaulx and Kirkham in Yorkshire, and at Warden

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Bedfordshire. Rievaulx is situated in a valley, the surrounding heights being covered with wood to their summits. The village is close to the abbey, and consists of a few scattered cottages, but they do not destroy the harmony of the picture, which, with the ruin, the wooded heights, a winding river, and two picturesque bridges, form a combination of objects that cannot fail to strike the least practised eye. One of the Duncombe family, in whose possession the site has remained since 1695, formed a fine terrace on the hill which overlooks the ruins. It is said by many to be the finest in England.

On the monasteries of the first class being dissolved, Rievaulx, the revenues of which were valued at 378*l.* 10*s.* 2*d.* per annum, was seized by the crown, and afterwards granted in exchange to a descendant of the Espee family. The Duke of Buckingham obtained possession of it through his marriage, and the trustees of George, the second duke, sold it in 1695 to Sir Charles Duncombe, an ancestor of Lord Feversham, the present owner.

The dissolution of monastic establishments in England, in the reign of Henry VIII., is a circumstance of great historical interest, and closely connected with the circumstances under which considerable property is now held, both by laymen and for ecclesiastical purposes. The question of breaking up the monasteries was formally proposed by Cromwell, one of the ministers of Henry VIII., in the year 1535, and a general visitation of the monasteries by commissioners was ordered. It was first determined to meddle only with the smaller monasteries; and a bill passed both houses of parliament, in 1536, giving to the king all monastic establishments, the clear yearly value of which did not exceed 200*l.*, with the property belonging to them, both real and personal, vesting the possession of the buildings and lands in those persons to whom the king should assign them by letters patent; but obliging the grantees, under the penalty of ten marks per month, to keep on them a honest house and household, and to plough the same number of acres which had been ploughed on an average of the last twenty years.

Dr. Lingard states, in his 'History of England,' that it was calculated that, by this Act, about 380 religious communities would be dissolved; and that an addition of 32,000*l.* would be made to the yearly revenue of the crown, besides the present receipt of 100,000*l.* in money, plate, and jewels.

The commissioners who were appointed to put the Act in execution were ordered to proceed to each religious house to announce its dissolution to the superior, —to make an inventory of the effects,—to secure the convent-seal and the title-deeds,—and to dispose of the inhabitants according to certain rules. The superior received a pension for life: of the monks, those who had not reached the age of twenty-four were absolved from their vows, and had to seek anew the means of existence. Others of the monks, who were placed in another class, were divided among the larger monasteries, or, in case they wished to leave the ecclesiastical state, were promised employment. The nuns were more hardly dealt with: each received a single gown from the king, and in other respects were thrown upon the world, or the support of friends.

The people were strongly affected, in many parts of England, by the consequences which resulted even from the dissolution of the smaller monasteries. The poor had formerly been fed at these establishments, and were now deprived of this ancient resource. Persons of property contended that the wealth of the monasteries ought not to fall into possession of the crown, but that it should revert to the representatives of the ancient donors. In the autumn of 1536 the state of public feeling was manifested by an insurrection in the northern counties, which was joined, most probably from inclination, by the Archbishop of York, several noblemen, many knights, and most of the gentry;—indeed, all whose attachment to ancient manners and customs was deeply rooted could not fail to desire that the progress of innovation should be checked. The insurrection, though of a formidable nature, was ultimately put down. This movement is generally spoken of as the "pilgrimage of grace," the banners of the insurgents being painted with the image of Christ crucified, and the chalice and host, the emblems of their faith. In many districts they placed the ejected monks in their former convents.

It appears now to have been the determination of the king and his ministers to deal with the larger monasteries in the same way as with the smaller ones. For a considerable period, commissioners were at work investigating the circumstances and condition of each establishment. In 1539 a bill was brought into Parliament vesting in the crown all the property, moveable and immoveable, of the monasteries, and by the spring of the year 1540 it had been surrendered into other hands.

Dr. Lingard gives the following scale of pensions allotted to the ejected inhabitants of the monasteries. To the superiors, from 266*l.* to 6*l.* per annum; priors of cells, generally about 13*l.* and in a few instances 20*l.*; to the other monks, pensions of 6*l.*, 4*l.*, or 2*l.*, with a small sum to provide for immediate wants on their departure. The pensions to nuns averaged about 4*l.* It should be recollected that the value of money has greatly changed since that period.

As soon as an abbey was surrendered, the commissioners, according to Burnet, proceeded to break the seal and assign pensions to the members. The plate and jewels were reserved for the king; the furniture and goods were sold. The abbott's lodging and the offices were left standing for the convenience of the next occupant: the church, cloisters, and apartments for the monks were stripped of the lead and every saleable article.

It appears from Rymer that the lands sold at twenty, the buildings at fifteen years' purchase; the buyers were to hold of the crown, paying a reserved rent.

According to the 'Liber Regis,' and other authentic sources, the annual revenue of all the suppressed monastic houses amounted to 142,914*l.* 12*s.* 9½*d.*, being about the one-and-twentieth part of the whole rental of the kingdom, if the estimate of Hume be correct, which assigned the amount at 3,000,000*l.* The amount of the estimates of the annual value of real property of England and Wales, as assessed in 1815, was about 52,000,000*l.*

On the suppression of the religious houses, Henry VIII. created six new episcopal sees, those of Westminster, Oxford, Peterborough, Bristol, Chester and Gloucester, and fourteen abbeys and priories were converted by him into cathedral and collegiate churches, to each of which a dean and a certain number of prebendaries were attached. The abbey lands were by degrees alienated from the crown.

MANNERS OF THE NORTHERN COAL MINERS.

[From a Correspondent.]

In the supplemental numbers of the 'Penny Magazine' for March and April, 1835, respectively, the account there given of the collieries of Durham and Northumberland is so accurate and replete with interesting information respecting the course pursued in obtaining coal, and the manner in which it is prepared for the market, that I am induced to think some further particulars relative to the peculiar habits of the persons

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employed in the winning of this great article of commerce will be no less interesting to the readers of this Magazine.

The miners of the extensive coal-districts of Durham and Northumberland, at an early period of life, in most cases ten years of age and frequently earlier, commence their laborious calling as trap-door keepers,—(described on the left of the engraving at page 125, vol. iv.,) which employment consists in opening and shutting, as occasion requires, the doors which are placed at intervals along the various tram-lines at the bottom of the mine; and, by different gradations, ultimately arrive at the rank of hewers, described at page 127, vol. iv.

The wages which the colliers receive in these various gradations differ, of course, in amount; but these, and likewise the general appearance and dress of the miners, have been so ably and accurately detailed and described in the supplemental numbers of this Magazine already referred to, that it is unnecessary to repeat this information here.

Notwithstanding the hardship and danger which the miners daily undergo, they are commonly strangers to poverty and want; their earnings being of an amount not only sufficient to prevent this, but, when properly disposed of, to maintain themselves and families very comfortably. Their cottages, particularly those of the steady and temperate part of them, generally exhibit *inside* an appearance of comparative cleanliness and comfort seldom indeed to be met with in the abodes of the poorer classes of populous towns. They usually consist of two apartments; the principal one a room of about sixteen feet by fourteen, with a floor composed of *brick* and well washed and sanded; and the other a sort of garret over the one just mentioned, and rendered accessible by means of a small ladder.

The three principal and most indispensable articles of furniture in the miners' houses, are a large four-poled *bed, an* eight-day clock, and a chest of drawers. The space beneath the drawers is the receptacle for loaves of bread of unusually large dimensions but of excellent quality; whilst that between the ceiling of the apartment and the top of the drawers, is always occupied with a lot *of china* teacups and saucers, piled up in the most fantastic manner, and exhibiting the inevitable consequence of total destruction in the event of suddenly "slipping from their pedestal" by accident or otherwise. On one side of the cheerful fireside is a small oven for baking *small* cakes, or other necessaries, in those days when the fire is not put to the large ovens which stand at intervals "*few* and far between" before the doors of a colliery hamlet:—

> "While broken teacups, wisely kept for show,
> Ranged o'er the chimney, glisten in a row."

A large oaken or fir table for general use, usually stands *before* the window, accompanied on one side by a form of the same length. Another table of a turn-over kind, and made of mahogany or birch, stands at one side of the apartment, on which are usually placed a few books, commonly called number-books, and a very showy tea-*board*. These are also "wisely kept for show," for they are seldom used. Indeed to place every article worth seeing in as conspicuous a light as possible seems to be the ruling passion of the pitman's wife in household affairs. This is strongly illustrated in the case *where* her stock of china is so large as not to admit of being placed on the top of the drawers. So great an aversion has she to putting the superfluous part away, that she places them in a small corner cupboard, and either has a glass door to it, or, if a wooden one, allows *it to* stand continually open.

In some collieries the miners have, very laudably indeed, formed themselves into friendly societies for the purpose of providing against disease, and the more awful calamity of accidental death, which very often suddenly befalls them. These societies are conducted by a secretary and treasurer, usually chosen from among the most intelligent and respectable of their own body. The members deposit annually in the hands of the treasurer a certain sum of money, and in the season of ill-health receive a weekly allowance; or, in the event of the death of themselves, or any other of the members of their own families, a sufficient sum is immediately advanced out of the funds to enable the survivors to defray the expense incurred in burying their deceased relatives.

Beyond this, comparatively few of the miners, notwithstanding the considerable sums which most of them earn, are in the habit of accumulating money to meet the infirmities of age, to which they are sooner liable than any other class of men, or the various other physical contingencies to which their hazardous avocation continually subjects them.

With respect to the moral condition of the miners, truth and justice compel me to state that it suffers materially when contrasted with that of the poorer classes of society where the blessings of education and the diffusion of useful knowledge are enjoyed. It is true

> "Some sterner virtues o'er the mountain's breast
> May sit, like falcons cowering on the nest:
> But all the gentler morals, such as play
> Through life's more cultured walks, and charm the way,
> These, far dispersed, on timorous pinions fly,
> To sport and flutter in a kinder sky."

But it is gratifying to be able to relate that the efforts which are made by the Wesleyan and Primitive Methodists, as well as by other religious bodies, are beginning to be crowned with the most satisfactory and encouraging results.

Formerly, and not many years ago, the sole amusements of the miners were cock-fighting, badger-baiting, quoiting, bowling for ruinous sums of money, attending horse-races, and gambling of the lowest description. But of late years these barbarous pastimes have, in a great measure, been discontinued, and they begin now to turn their attention and devote their leisure to more rational and pleasing pursuits. Some few years ago the miners belonging to one of the most extensive of the collieries formed themselves into a class for the purpose of learning instrumental music, and by associating together they raised weekly such a sum of money as enabled them to procure the assistance of a person capable of teaching the use of the various musical instruments: the scheme was successful, and has since been almost universally adopted by the miners of other collieries. Almost every colliery of any considerable extent has its band of music, who assemble together in the evenings, and on public occasions, to exercise themselves in this delightful pursuit. Some, too, delight in cultivating the rarer specimens of flowers and plants, in situations where the atmosphere of the colliery, which is very injurious to vegetable life, will admit of this; and they are frequently members of the neighbouring Horticultural and Botanical Societies; but the number of those who find pleasure in such a delightful study as the rearing of flowers is very limited indeed. I am afraid that this pursuit can never be carried on to any great extent in the immediate neighbourhood of a colliery, which is singularly unfavourable to the propagation of vegetable life. In these ungenial regions, "where smoke and dust bedim the golden day," the huge volumes of dense smoke continually issuing from the tall chimneys, and borne away in slow dismal pageantry on the wings of the passing breeze, render the atmosphere impure and unhealthy, the effects of which are very visible on the surrounding vegetation; all vegetable life, to a considerable distance from the scene of operations, exhibiting a blighted appearance, and never that fresh-

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ness of green which pervades it in more salubrious situations.

I am sorry to say, however, that the evil habit of intemperance is still very prevalent among the colliers, and that notwithstanding the unwearied efforts of the Wesleyan and Primitive Methodists to promote their moral and intellectual improvement, vice and ignorance still prevail to a considerable extent. In most places their wages are paid them at the end of every fortnight, and immediately after the receipt, it is the universal rule among them—admitting, of course, of some exceptions—to go directly to the public ale-house, and there squander away, in the purchase of a nauseous potation, a considerable part of the hard-earned fruits of their industry.

But before pronouncing an unfavourable opinion upon the moral and intellectual condition of the miners, all the peculiar obstacles which lie between them and the commonest mental acquirement, and the great difficulty or the almost impossibility of their ever attaining to anything like a pure and universal state of morality, should be taken into the account. It should always be borne in mind, that the miner's calling is fraught with hardships and dangers peculiar to few or no other occupations. In the tenderest period of human life he is consigned to those gloomy caverns where his forefathers and friends have begun and lingered out a toilsome existence,—

"Amidst the darksome wonders
Which earth's vast caves conceal,
Where subterraneous thunders
The miner's path reveal."

With their example before his eyes, and shut out from all the blessings which most other classes of society enjoy, from year to year he pursues his stern, unyielding vocation, till accident, or the infirmities of age, or death,

"————the poor man's dearest friend,
The kindest and the best,"

puts a period to his toil.

NATIONAL GALLERIES FOR THE FINE ARTS AT MUNICH.

THE PINACOTHEK.



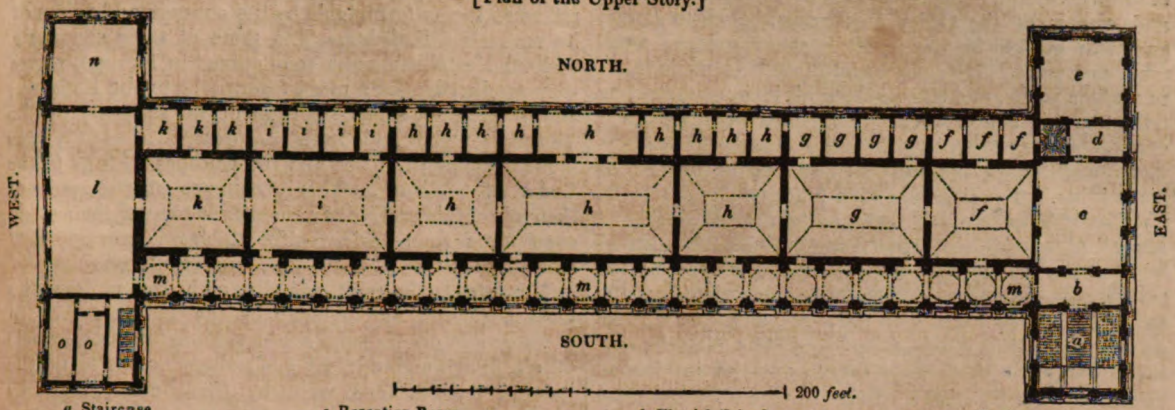
[Picture Gallery, Munich.]

ALTHOUGH the private collection of sculpture of the King of Bavaria is very rich and valuable, it is in pictures that he is able to rival the finest galleries of Europe. He possesses the pictures of the celebrated gallery at Dusseldorf, the various collections at Manheim, Deuxponts, Heidelberg, and Ratisbon; and, moreover, the interesting Boisserie Gallery, collected by the two brothers of that name, who were for a long time employed in making selections from various convents, and other public buildings and private collections, of the productions of the early painters of Germany. This collection, with a vast number of other pictures, is kept for the present in a palace of the king's, Schleissheim, near Munich, until the great National Gallery at Munich (now nearly completed) is finished. This building, also undertaken by the king, is called the "Pinacothek," and is upon a grand scale: Baron Klenze is the architect. As our own National Gallery is in progress, an account of this splendid work will be considered particularly interesting in this country: we have, therefore, given an engraving of the elevation of the Gallery, and have added a plan from which the arrangement may be best understood.

The first stone of the Pinacothek was laid on the 7th of April, 1826 (the birthday of Raphael), by the king: it is intended to place the pictures in it in the course of

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[Plan of the Upper Story.]



a, Staircase.
b, Entrance Hall.
c, Vestibule.
d, Inspector's Room.
e, Reception Room.
f, Hall and Cabinets of the Modern School.
g, Old German School.
h, Flemish School.
i, French and Spanish Schools.
k, *l*, Italian School.
m, *m*, *m*, Corridor.
n, Hall for Copyists.
o, *o*, Offices.

the present summer (1836). The different saloons have been planned and arranged with peculiar reference to the principal pictures which are to be placed in them; and the whole building is capacious enough to contain about 1600 of the best pictures to be selected from the Dusseldorf Gallery, the Boisserie collection, and the various other collections of the king. The same plan as regards ornament adopted in the Glyptothek has been followed here; the ceilings of different rooms are enriched with splendid gilt and white ornaments, and with medallions and portraits of the most celebrated painters, all designed by the Baron Klenze, and executed by some of the first artists at Munich. The floors and the dados round each room are of different coloured Bavarian marbles, and the walls are to be hung with rich silk, the colours of which are to be selected, as far as possible, to suit the different pictures to be placed there. The former are to be so dispersed as to form part of the architectural ornaments of the rooms, thus giving the whole the appearance of one uniform design. The Gallery is an oblong edifice, with two wings at the extremities. The body of the building is of brick; the balustrades, entablatures, and windows are of stone. It is intended to place the building in the centre of a fine public garden, which, however, is not yet completed. It consists of an upper and lower story: the ground-floor is to be appropriated to the collection of Etruscan vases and mosaics, the king's fine cabinet of drawings by the ancient masters, and the collection of engravings, which is said to be one of the richest in Europe;—a library of works relating to the fine arts, an entrance-hall, and accommodations for the students and officers of the establishment. It is the upper floor which is to contain the pictures: this consists of a reception-room, and along the front of the building runs a corridor, about 400 feet in length and 18 in width, lighted by twenty-five lofty arched windows, having on the other side ten doors opening into the seven halls for containing the larger pictures of the collection; on the north side of these seven halls are twenty-three cabinets, in which are to be placed the smaller pictures of the different schools, to which the adjoining halls are appropriated, all lighted from the north. The centre halls, which are about fifty feet in height, are lighted by lanterns from the top. The mode of arranging the different schools is shown in the plan. From the windows of the long corridor to the south a splendid view is afforded of the fine range of the Tyrolean Alps. The whole of this corridor, which does not contain any ancient picture, is painted in fresco, in imitation of the Loggie of the Vatican by Raphael. Many of these frescos are already finished. The cupolas over each window contain scenes from the lives of the most distinguished painters, chronologically arranged, thus forming a graphic history of painting, an appropriate accompaniment to a gallery of pictures.

It is from this corridor that the visitor to the Gallery may enter through any one of the doors at once into the particular school which he wishes to inspect, without first passing through the whole range, and having his mind distracted by a multiplicity of objects or his eyes dazzled and fatigued.

There is one other point which should be particularly mentioned with regard to the picture gallery, which is the extreme care which has been taken by Baron Klenze, assisted by other scientific persons at Munich, with regard to the arrangement of the lanterns by which the centre halls are lighted. These are so managed that the light is uniformly distributed over the four sides of the hall, so that on looking at the corner it is impossible to distinguish the line of junction of the angles; and between the darkest and the lightest part of the walls not above two or three degrees of difference are perceptible. Both the statue gallery and the picture gallery, as well as all other repertories of art belonging to the king, are freely open to the inspection of the public on stated days.

KNIGHTS OF MALTA.—No. III.

The Knights found Rhodes in possession of a set of Mohammedan pirates and Greek rebels, who had long set the falling government of the eastern emperors at defiance. The island itself was in a deplorable state, scarcely a vestige remaining of its ancient prosperity and splendour. Greeks and Turks, however, left off cutting one another's throats, and, joining arms, made such a stand against the Christians of the West, that it took the Hospitallers four years to reduce them. During this time many battles were fought; and so severe was the loss occasioned to the Latins, and so dim the prospect of final success, that the surviving crusaders and adventurers, band after band, returned to Europe, until none were left but the troops of the Order, who were at that time laying siege to the strong capital of the island. At this juncture the Greek emperor, by an extraordinary effort, had thrown a considerable force upon the island, with the vain hope that, should he dispossess the Latins, the Greeks and Mohammedans would submit to his sway. Abandoned by their allies, and hemmed in by their enemies, who continued to increase their force, the Knights, from being besiegers, saw themselves besieged in the works they had erected for the purpose of taking the city of Rhodes. For some time they had been in want of money and provisions; but the energetic efforts of Fulk de Villaret, the Grand Master, in the mean time had been taking effect: loans contracted with the bankers

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of Florence, and sums supplied by the commanderies and estates of the Order in Europe, began to arrive, and with gold in his hands, Fulk could procure food, men, and arms. He soon found himself in a condition to make a sortie, and issuing from his intrenchments, he fell upon his beleaguerers. The movement led to a general engagement, in which the Grand Master was victorious, though not until he had lost the bravest of his knights. The siege was then renewed; and, finally, on the "Festival of the Assumption of the Blessed Mary" (15th August, 1310), the principal outworks being taken, the Knights advanced, at the head of the troops, to the assault,—succeeded in planting the Grand Master's standard on the walls, and then Rhodes was carried with much slaughter. The historians of the Order state that the Knights cut the infidels to pieces, but spared the Christian inhabitants, and gave them their liberty; but Christian as well as Turkish property,—the lands, houses, and goods of the native Rhodians,—were seized by the conquerors, who, hating the schismatic Greeks almost as much as the infidels, may not have been so sparing of Christian blood as was reported.

Shortly after these successes the Grand Master reduced the neighbouring islands of Telos, Syme, Nisyros, Cos, Calymna, and Leros, and established the authority of the Order in nearly every one of that famous group called by the ancients the "Sporades," and of which Rhodes may be considered the chief. After these conquests, which put him in possession of what might be called a little kingdom, the Grand Master returned in triumph to Rhodes, where he hoped to enjoy peace and repose; but in looking forward he had not made a proper estimate of the power and ambition of the Turkish princes of the House of Osman, who had taken a large part of the neighbouring continent of Asia Minor from the Greeks, and who, shortly after his return, fell upon him at Rhodes. The Knights were hotly besieged within the walls and towers they had so recently taken, and which, from want of time, they had not put in sufficient repair. The Osmanlis, with the vigour and fierceness that distinguished their early career, made several assaults, but the Hospitallers repelled attack after attack, and eventually forced the Turks to raise the siege and embark for the main.

As soon as their backs were turned, Fulk de Villaret, who had other and higher talents than the merely military, applied himself assiduously to the means of reviving commerce, and restoring Rhodes and its dependencies to their ancient flourishing state. He weighed the resources of these beautiful islands and found them great. Rhodes, 120 miles in circumference, was almost everywhere fertile; its mountains abounded with fine timber, and the islanders possessed in perfection the art of building with it vessels of astonishing rapidity. Syme furnished its excellent wines and sponges in inexhaustible quantities;—Leros its fine marbles;—Cos, which is about seventy miles in circumference, its wines and delicious fruits of all sorts in the greatest plenty;—and every other island contributed something that was useful, or might be exchanged for other produce, or the manufactures of Europe. Several fine sea-ports existed among the Sporades, and the islanders were universally good sailors. The Grand Master very wisely made the port of Rhodes free and open to all nations. Many of the Christians who, since the loss of Palestine, had been living scattered through Greece, flocked to Rhodes, to settle there and enjoy the protection of the standard of St. John. Trade brought others who wholly or partially established themselves, and kept up a communication with the coasts of Asia Minor, Syria, Greece, and Italy; and out of this medley of knights and burgesses, foreigners and inhabitants, both of the Greek and Roman church, there arose, as Vertot observes, a new, warlike, and commercial state, that soon became as powerful by its riches as it was formidable by the courage and valour of its sovereign Knights. The fame of these conquests and solid establishments soon spread in Europe, where they produced effects most favourable to the Knights; and, soon after, a large portion of the property of the Templars, who had been suppressed in 1312, was made over by the Pope and the European kings to the Order of St. John. This inheritance of the spoils of their old rivals and bitter enemies increased their pride even more than their wealth, which was now supplied by many streams.

Next to trade with friendly orthodox powers, the most enriching employment of the Knights was in privateering or cruizing against Mohammedan vessels of all kinds, and against such ships or boats of the heterodox Greeks as were by them deemed to be piratical. Their vows bound them to perpetual war against the Turk, and the clearing the seas of pirates was a seemly addition to their holy duties; *only* it unfortunately happened that, as they made their own admiralty court and laws, they not unfrequently seized and condemned Greek vessels which were not fair prizes. Every knight was bound to make at least one cruize in the course of the year: these cruizes, in the language of the Order, were called "caravans," a term constantly occurring in the history of the Hospitallers. On the summit of a mountain in the island of Syme, Fulk de Villaret had erected a lofty tower, whence ships could be discovered at a great distance. As soon as a strange sail was signalled, which was done by lighting fires at night, and making a dense smoke if by day, the pinks and light frigates of Syme, the row-boats and galleys of Rhodes, the feluccas and light and swift vessels of others of the islands, were got under weigh, and escape from so many pursuers became almost impossible. This mode of life was soon found to be altogether incompatible with the vows and discipline of the Order. Enriched by prize-money, and constantly excited by adventure, and rapid change of associates and scenes, the Knights commanding the squadrons lost all semblance of a monastic body. On their return from successful caravans, they gamed and drank, and indulged in other debaucheries, making the "religious city" of Rhodes look very like a profane Portsmouth or Plymouth in war-time. These excesses were followed by insubordination, jealousies, and dissensions. The Knights were in this state in 1321, when the Osmanli prince Orchan endeavoured to drive them out of Rhodes and the rest of the Sporades. The best of their ships were absent on caravans; but throwing themselves on board the galleys and merchant-vessels in port, and being aided by a small Genoese squadron, the Hospitallers, instead of awaiting the attack of the Turks on land, boldly put to sea with a very inferior force, and anticipating the enemy, thoroughly defeated him. On this as on many other occasions the Knights of St. John merited the name of naval heroes. In 1344 the squadrons of the Order, which now scoured as masters the whole of the western coast of Asia Minor, took the fort and part of the town of Smyrna from the Turks. They retained this footing on the Asiatic continent for fifty-six years, but did not extend their small territory there, which, however, was valuable as a trading mart, while it enabled them to put down the Turkish corsairs that used to infest the Gulf of Smyrna. When the Knights were dispossessed they had at least the honour of ceding to a great conqueror, for it was Tamerlane who took their Castle of Smyrna by storm in 1400. In the period included betwen 1344 and 1400 the Hospitallers had performed many exploits, and entertained projects of a truly gigantic ambition. In 1347 they went into Lesser Armenia, to defend the Christian king of that country against the Mohammedans; and at one time they are supposed to have

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contemplated the re-establishment of the great kingdom of Armenia as an appanage to their Order. In 1355 they proposed the conquest of the Morea, and would have undertaken it but for the death of the Pope, who had gone into their views. Ten years later they aimed at sovereignty in Egypt; and with Peter I., the Christian king of Cyprus, they actually took Alexandria, which city, however, they were obliged to abandon in a few days. In 1376, when the Babylonish captivity of the Christian Church, as Petrarca called it, came to an end, and it was resolved that thenceforward the Popes should reside at Rome, and not at Avignon, the Grand Master, with the best of his galleys, had the honour of escorting Gregory XI. from the mouths of the Rhone to the mouth of the Tiber. During the same year, in conjunction with the Venetians, they took Patras, and in the year following, with the same allies, attempted the conquest of the whole of the Morea. There, however, they were very unsuccessful, and Juan Fernandez de Heredia was taken prisoner. In 1396 they joined the league of the Christian princes against Bajazet, and fought in the fatal battle of Nicopolis, where many of the Knights perished, and the Grand Master escaped with difficulty by throwing himself into a fishing-boat.

Some bold attempts to regain Palestine and maritime Syria seem to have failed through the Venetians, who played them false, and through the jealousies of the Christian powers generally. Retaining their maritime supremacy, the Knights continued to distress the Turks and Egyptians, until, at last, scarcely a vessel bearing a Mohammedan flag could put to sea without being seized and carried into Rhodes. Four times did the Mussulmans make prodigious efforts to dislodge the knights from the Sporades, and four times were they signally defeated by the intrepidity and superior skill of the Hospitallers. In one of these expeditions the Egyptians succeeded in landing on Rhodes 18,000 men, who, after a siege of forty days, were forced to re-embark. This was in 1444; but a far more memorable siege was one which the Order gallantly sustained for eighty-nine days in 1492, when the conquering arms of Mohammed II. were foiled and covered with disgrace. The Turks fleeing to their galleys with a host of wounded and dying, are said to have left 9000 dead before the strong and well-defended walls of Rhodes. During this siege the brave Master of the Order, Pierre d'Aubusson, received no fewer than five wounds. But this was the last great achievement of the knights during their possession of Rhodes. The Turks had become more and more formidable since their conquest of Constantinople, and in their Greek subjects, who hated the knights with a constant hatred, they found plenty of able seamen to conduct their fleets. When Sultan Solyman the Fourth, commonly called "The Magnificent," succeeded to the Osmanli Empire, at the end of 1520, he was a young man, vigorous and enterprising, and in the earliest days of his reign (a favourable omen in Turkish superstition) the conquest of Rhodes was determined upon, let it cost what blood it might. It was not, however, until June, 1522, that Solyman's tremendous armament appeared before Rhodes, and then indeed began a series of losses and sacrifices, which were followed by victory, but which rendered Rhodes the dearest conquest the Turks had ever made. Before beginning the siege, Solyman summoned the knights to surrender, and historians pretend to have preserved translations of the sultan's letter. "The continual robberies with which you molest our faithful subjects, (we quote from Vertot,) and the insolence you offer our majesty, oblige us to require you to deliver up to us immediately the island and fortress of Rhodes. If you do this readily, we swear by the God who made heaven and earth, by the six-and-twenty thousand prophets, and by our great prophet Mohammed, that you shall have full liberty to go out of the island, and the inhabitants to remain there, without any injury: but, if you do not submit immediately to our commands, you shall all be cut to pieces with our terrible sword, and the towers, walls, and bastions of Rhodes shall be made level with the grass that grows at the foot of those fortifications."

To this summons the knights would give no reply save such "as should be spoken by the mouths of their cannon*."

The force of the Turks was undoubtedly great, but in Asiatic armies there are always numerous hordes that cannot be considered as soldiers, and the total of 150,000 men was probably exaggerated by the Christians, who set down their own force at no more than 600 knights, 5000 regular troops, and some companies of militia raised on the island among both Greeks and Latins. But in the course of two centuries the Knights of St. John had rendered the town of Rhodes one of the strongest places in the world. In the words of an old writer, it was "compassed with a most strong double wall, and wide and deep trenches; it had thirteen stately towers, and five mighty bulwarks," in addition to all which there were many natural advantages. When the Turks, after thirteen days of hesitation and inaction, began to fire upon the fortress, the Knights took up their positions according to their nations, or the "languages," into which they were divided by the Order. Extending from the French tower stood the French, with the lilies of France in their banners,—thence to St. George's Gate lay the stout Germans, with the eagle in their ensigns,—from the Gate of St. George frowned the English,—after them came the Spaniards and the Knights of Auvergne,—then the Italians, in valour not inferior to any of the rest;—and L'Isle Adam, the aged but active and heroic Grand Master, quitting his palace, took post hard by the church of "St. Mary of Victory," whence he could best succour any point that should be hard pressed by the infidels.

Nothing could be more unsuccessful than the first operations of the besiegers. The Knights destroyed their works, overturned their artillery with the cannons on the walls, and then, by sudden sorties, cut many hundred Turks to pieces in the trenches they were digging. The assailants were discouraged, the Pashas in command confused, and but for the arrival of Sultan Solyman himself with a reinforcement, which is stated as high as 15,000 men, the Turks, who had suffered tremendous losses, must have retired. Even after the arrival of the sultan, who forced his men to the deadly breach, and threw away human life without calculation or compunction, the siege proceeded very slowly, and the most determined resistance was made by the Knights at every point. The first bulwark blown up was the English, but four successive times did the brave warriors who defended it drive the Turks back from the breach, and tear down the Mussulman flag they had planted there. When the siege had lasted four months, many persons within the town proposed that the Knights should capitulate; but old L'Isle Adam, who seemed determined to be buried under the falling walls, would not listen to them; and though neglected and abandoned by all Christendom, and left to his own limited resources, he actually made good his defence for two months longer; and even then, when his gunpowder and provisions were alike exhausted, obtained an honourable capitulation, with permission to retire with his surviving Knights whithersoever he might choose. Between the killed and wounded, and those who died of fevers and contagious disorders, the Turks are said to have lost upwards of 100,000 men during the six months' siege of Rhodes.

* Knolles's 'History of the Turks.' This old writer's version of the sultan's letter does not differ materially from that given by Vertot, but he has fourscore thousand prophets, in lieu of six-and-twenty thousand.

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There was a sort of barbaric grandeur, mixed with magnanimity, and now and then a gleam of gentle feeling, in Sultan Solyman. When he entered the city of Rhodes as a conqueror, he paid a respectful visit to the vanquished Grand Master, and touched by his misfortunes, his resignation and his age, he said to his officers, on quitting L'Isle Adam, "It is not without pain that I force this Christian, at his time of life, to leave his dwelling."

ORIGINAL COLONIZATION OF CANADA, BY FRANCIS I.

(*From Sharon Turner's 'History of Henry VIII.'*)

As Canada is now become the most important relic of our North American possessions, and is daily increasing in its population, property, and commercial relations, and was first colonized in the reign of Henry VIII., it may gratify the reader to peruse the original instructions for the earliest settlement that was made upon it, from the European branch of the human race, as they were either dictated or approved by Francis I.

This region was existing unknown to all the other parts of the globe, until the year 1508, when some Norman and Breton adventurers, seeking their fortune at sea, under one John Denys, of Normandy, accidentally roved near it. They did little more than inspect some of its coasts, but it became afterwards known to several of their countrymen, who went to fish near its shores, and whose reports about it at last interested Francis I. to desire that it should be more specially examined.

With this view, in the year 1534, he sent Jacques Cartier Malouin, to reconnoitre the country, inspect its havens and ports, and by sailing up the great river which flowed from it, to learn all that he could collect of its soil, climate, and inhabitants. Cartier executed his commission with satisfactory diligence, and the information which he communicated on his return determined the French king to establish a colony in the country, near its principal river, now called St. Lawrence, which is the largest stream of water in North America. This important river was then termed CANADA by the natives, and its name became transferred to the country itself, though it was afterwards also called New France.

His expensive wars with the emperor prevented Francis I. from pursuing his plan of colonizing Canada till the year 1538. But having at last agreed with Charles V. to establish a general truce between them for ten years, from the 18th June 1538, he proceeded three months afterwards to the accomplishment of his colonial enterprise, and it is in the September of this year that the following official document occurs, for the outfit of the expedition to establish the first settlement in this territory of North America, which has now become such an important member of the foreign dominions of Great Britain.

"*Memoir of the Men and Provisions necessary for the Vessels which the King intends to send into Canada.*

"To perform the voyage which the king our sovereign lord desires to have made to Canada, it must go, at the latest, in the middle of May, and must have the number of persons and ships hereinafter mentioned, to be increased or lessened as M. Le Connetable (the prime minister) shall think proper.

"It will be requisite to have, as well for guarding the ships that will remain there, as for the equipment of several boats which will be wanted to go into the various streams and rivers, 120 mariners.

"Also forty men of war; harquebuziers.

"Also thirty carpenters, as well of ships as of houses, and sawyers who work lengthways.

"Ten master masons, who can be assisted by those of the country who will serve them.

"Three men who can make lime.

"Three makers of tiles.

"Two coalmen to make charcoal.

"Four master farriers, each having a forge and two servants, with two locksmiths.

"Four smiths, to search and ascertain if there be any mine of iron, and to make forges and work iron there.

"To take, at least, six vine-dressers and six labourers.

"Three barbers, and each a servant.

"Two apothecaries, with each a servant, to examine and see the useful qualities of the herbs.

"A physician and a servant.

"Two goldsmiths who are lapidaries, with their necessary utensils, and each a servant.

"Two master tailors and two master hosiers, and each a servant.

"Two joiners and two servants, with their tools.

"Two master rope-makers and two servants, because there is hemp to make cordage.

"Four cannoneers at least, and the men-of-war will make use of these when need requires.

"Six churchmen, with all things necessary for divine service; in all 276 men.

"To be victualled for two years at least; that if the ships which shall be sent there next year should not arrive, those now going may not want food.

"These victuals must be well made, and so good as to last all this time; and there must be some of the dry wines of Spain.

"These victuals may cost ten sols a month for each man, which, for the 276 men for 24 months, will amount to 33,120 livres.

"They must also be furnished with clothes, beds, coverings, and all other necessaries for two or three years; and they must leave some money behind for their wives and children;

"Therefore they must be paid in advance for fifteen or sixteen months, and this will cost at least, one with the other, 100 sols a-month.

"Ten tons of iron, which will cost fifty livres.

"Eight or ten prises of salt, as well for the people of the country, who very much value it, as for those of the ships. This will cost in Brittany sixty sols for each prise.

"Four milliers yards of common linen, as well for the natives as for the ships.

"Three hundred pieces of crezeaus for natives and ships.

"Also millstones, to make water-mills, wind-mills, and hand-mills.

"They must also carry out as many as possible of all manner and kinds of domestic beasts and birds, as well to do the work as to breed in the country; and all sorts of grains and seeds.

"For their passage there must be at least six ships, of not less than 110 tons, with two barks of 45 or 50 tons each; these, with the smallest of the six ships, will remain there, and the other five will return as soon as they have landed the victuals and goods. For the return of these five, each must have twenty men over and above the aforesaid number. They may take in going and coming, and in staying there, five or six months, for which time they must be victualled; and be paid two months on going out and the remainder on their return.

"There must be munitions of war to land for the forts; artillery arquebuzes a croc, pikes, halberts, lead, balls, powder, and other things.

"In the ships must be three boats, ready to put out when there, to go out on the streams and rivers.

"All sorts of nail-work, pitch, and tar for the ships.

"The six ships, being from 700 to 800 tons, will cost a crown per ton a month, for moleage; or about 900 crowns a month, and for the six months 4900 crowns.

"There must be also provided pay and victuals for 100 men, to bring back the shipping this year, who may be detained six months; which would amount to 1000 livres a month, and therefore for the six months 6000 livres.

"Made the . . . September, 1538."

I derive this curious paper from the collection of state letters made by Ribier in 1666, and addressed by him to Colbert, the celebrated minister of Louis XIV. This counsellor of state describes Canada as then "a vast country, uncultivated like a desert, and in most places uninhabited, except by demons and wild beasts."

It was in 1540 that this colonizing expedition reached Canada, under the Sieur de Roberval, and in 1543 another fleet under his superintendence was sent to it, by the same intelligent monarch, Francis I., who seems not to have suffered either of his contemporaries, Charles V. or Henry VIII., to have surpassed him in his encouragement to every laudable undertaking which the intellect and spirit of the day were inclined to pursue.

*** The Office of the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge is at 59, Lincoln's Inn Fields

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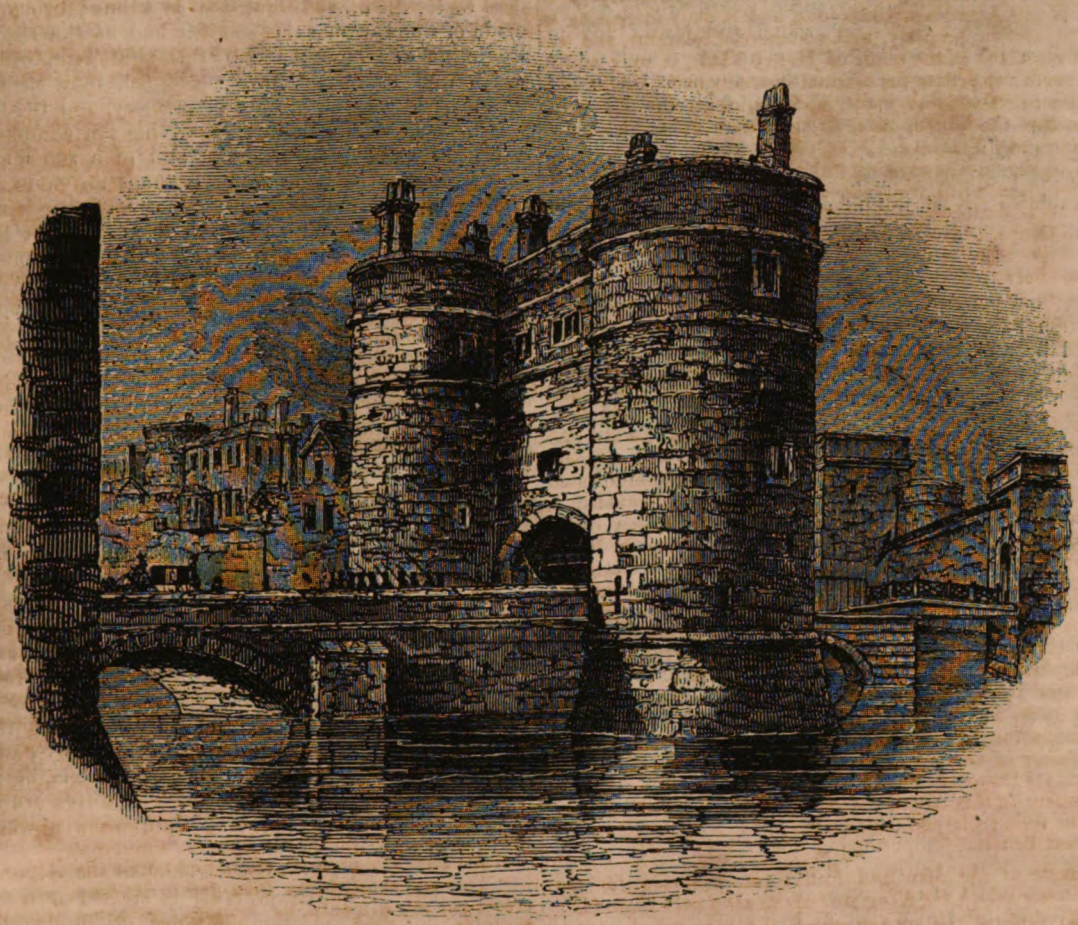
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Monthly Supplement of
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272.] May 31 to June 30, 1836.

THE TOWER OF LONDON.—No. I.



[Byward Tower and Stone Bridge, with Drawbridge leading to the Wharf.]

The series of buildings termed the Tower of London occupies an extensive area to the east of the city, on the north bank of the Thames. The following description, though the terms in which it is conveyed are not rigidly exact, may convey a general idea of the form of the Tower:—

The area may be termed a circle, which is described by a wide and spacious ditch, or moat, running round the walls, and the river. The centre of this circle is occupied by the most conspicuous and the most ancient portion of the Tower, the citadel or keep, which was the original Tower of London, and was occupied as the royal palace. This is a massive quadrangular building, having a turret at each angle rising considerably above the roof. It is termed the White Tower. The White Tower stands in the centre, or nearly so, of a square or inclosure, called the Inner Ward; the buildings composing which are appropriated to the Ordnance Office, the ancient and modern armouries, store-houses, resident governor's house, &c. The Inner Ward is encircled by the Outer Ward, a narrow street, or rather lane, running round the Tower, which is appropriated to offices, residences, barracks, &c., and in which are several public-houses. The walls have cannon mounted at the embrasures. "Within the walls is comprised a superficies of twelve acres and five roods. The exterior circumference of the ditch measures 330 yards, independently of its sloping banks; and, on the side of Tower Hill, its width is at the top from thirty to forty-two yards: on the side next the river, from which it is separated by a spacious raised wharf, or platform, its width is from forty to fifty yards*."

The principal entrance into the Tower is at the west angle, through a series of gates (four in number) leading through an inclosure, and over a stone bridge thrown across the ditch, or moat. Two of these gates,

* Britton and Brayley's 'Memoirs of the Tower,' p. 211. This book, which is an octavo volume of nearly 400 pages, along with the larger and more elaborate work of Mr. Bayley ('History of the Tower,' 2 vols. 4to.), form the chief authorities from which the present account is taken. The latter work is the basis of all other subsequent accounts of the Tower. Some assistance will be derived from Meyrick's 'Critical Inquiry into Ancient Armour.'

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the third and fourth, are flanked by round towers. The wood-cut at the head of this article represents the bridge and fourth gateway, which is termed the Byward Tower. The little drawbridge conducts across the ditch, through two gateways, to the wharf on the Thames. At the east end of this wharf there is a gate which gives egress from the Tower, from which circumstance the lower part of the Outer Ward and the wharf is in considerable use as a thoroughfare.

At the principal entrance to the Tower, on the west, there were formerly, as we are told by Mr. Bayley, considerable outworks, which were enclosed by a small moat, forming what is termed a barbican, or barbacan. This was the post of an advanced guard, where a porter was stationed to keep "watch and ward," and to announce in due form all state arrivals; and where strangers were detained until their business was made known to the governor. These feudal ceremonies were observed down to the reign of James I., when they gradually fell into disuse.

Before proceeding further to describe the Tower, it is desirable to advert, not in a querulous or an invidious spirit, to a complaint very generally made. In doing so we have the sanction of Mr. Bayley's example, who, in his 'History of the Tower,' speaks of the matter in strong and pointed terms. Without entering into the question how far the taste and habits of the people would be affected by throwing open our national collections to their inspection, in the same way as at the British Museum or the National Gallery, it will at least be conceded that, if any part of such an establishment as the Tower is to be exhibited for money, the fees of admission should be moderate. The price of admission to see the Tower collections is six shillings! This is a heavy tax on a working man, who might wish to give his family the enjoyment of a rational pleasure by a visit to the Tower. Besides, the money is paid, not for seeing the Tower, but the collections contained in modern buildings. The keep, or citadel, formerly the palace; the church, or chapel, where repose many of the illustrious unfortunates whose names are connected with the Tower history; the Beauchamp tower, on the walls of which are still preserved a number of inscriptions, written to beguile the sad hours of imprisonment, are all closed against the general visitor. The regalia, or crown jewels, which are contained in a small tower at the north-east angle of the Inner Ward, were first exhibited to the public during the reign of Charles II., which was permitted in order to make up deficiencies in the emoluments of the keeper of the regalia, which had been reduced. But a visit to the Tower was a recreation much earlier than that period. Whatever had been given, however, to the servants or attendants was merely a gratuity, at the discretion of the visitor, which was always thankfully accepted. After the serious duties of the warders, in guarding prisoners, &c., had become greatly diminished, they betook themselves to the more pleasant task of acting as guides, or "ciceroni;" and at last, though at a comparatively recent period, the gratuity was changed into a fixed and compulsory payment, the exacting of which has been ever since tacitly permitted by the authorities.

Paul Hentzner, a German, who visited England towards the latter part of the reign of Queen Elizabeth, in 1598, has left the following description of it at that time:—

"Upon entering the Tower of London, we were obliged to leave our swords at the gate, and deliver them to the guard. When we were introduced we were shown above a hundred pieces of arras belonging to the crown, made of gold, silver, and silk; several saddles covered with velvet of different colours; an immense quantity of bed furniture, such as canopies and the like, some of them most richly ornamented with pearl; some royal dresses, so extremely magnificent as to raise any one's admiration at the sums they must have cost. We were next led to the armoury, in which are these particularities: spears out of which you may shoot; shields that will give fire four times; a great many rich halberds, commonly called partisans, with which the guard defend the royal person in battle, some lances covered with red and green velvet, and the suit of armour of King Henry VIII.; many and very beautiful arms, as well for men as for horse-fights; the lance of Charles Brandon, Duke of Suffolk, three spans thick—[this, Dr. Meyrick says, was a bourdonnass, or hollow lance]; two pieces of cannon, the one fires three, the other seven balls at a time; two others made of wood, which the English had at the siege of Boulogne in France; and by this stratagem, without which they could not have succeeded, they struck a terror as at the appearance of artillery, and the town was surrendered upon articles. Nineteen cannons of a thicker make than ordinary, and in a room apart thirty-six of a smaller; other cannons for chain shot, and balls proper to bring down masts of ships; cross bows, bows and arrows, of which to this day the English make great use in their exercises. But who can relate all that is to be seen here? Eight or nine men employed by the year are scarce sufficient to keep all the arms bright.

"The mint for coining money is in the Tower. N.B. It is to be noted that when any of the nobility are sent hither, on the charge of high crimes, punishable with death, such as murder, &c., they seldom or never recover their liberty. Here was beheaded Anna Bolen, wife of King Henry VIII., and lies buried in the chapel, but without any inscription; and Queen Elizabeth was kept prisoner here by her sister Queen Mary, at whose death she was enlarged, and by right called to the throne.

"On coming out of the Tower we were led to a small house close by, where are kept variety of creatures, viz., three lionesses, one lion of great size, called Edward VI., from his having been born in that reign; a tiger, a lynx; a wolf, excessively old: this is a very scarce animal in England, so that their sheep and cattle stray about in great numbers without any danger, though without anybody to keep them: there is, besides, a porcupine and an eagle: all these creatures are kept in a remote place, fitted up for the purpose with wooden lattices, at the queen's expense.

"Near to this Tower is a large open space: on the highest part of it [Tower Hill] is erected a wooden scaffold, for the execution of noble criminals; upon which, they say, three princes of England, the last of their families, have been beheaded for high treason. On the Thames close by are a great many cannon, such chiefly as are used at sea*."

From the mention of the menagerie in Paul Hentzner's 'Visit to the Tower,' we may here introduce an account of it, as that grand attraction of the visiters is now completely removed. The common phrase made use of by tourists of "seeing the lions" of a place, doubtless originated from the practice of visiting the wild animals formerly kept in the Tower. "In the barbarous ages," says the author of the 1st Volume of the 'Menageries,' in the 'Library of Entertaining Knowledge,' "beasts of prey were considered the especial property of kings, as something typical of their power and greatness. In the fortress where the crown of our ancient monarchs was kept were also confined their lions. These were generally maintained at the expense of the people, and sometimes of the civic officers of London, by special writ; and the keeper of the lions was a person of rank attached to the court. Gradually

* Paul Hentzner's 'Journey into England in the year 1598.'

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this exertion of the royal prerogative fell into decay; and if a foreign potentate presented a tiger or a leopard to the king, as was often the case with the rulers of the maritime states of Africa, the animal was given to the keeper of the menagerie to add to his stock of attractions for the public. Further, no care was taken of the collection on the part of the sovereign or the government."

The first notice of a royal menagerie in England places this establishment at Woodstock, where King Henry I. had a collection of lions, leopards, and other strange beasts. Three leopards were presented to Henry III. by the Emperor Frederick II., himself a zoologist of no mean rank. From Woodstock they were transferred to the Tower; and numerous orders, issued in this and the succeeding reigns to the sheriffs of London and of the counties of Bedford and Buckingham to provide for the maintenance of the animals and their keepers, are extant among the records. Thus in the year 1252 the sheriffs of London were commanded to pay fourpence a day for the maintenance of a white bear; and in the following year to provide a muzzle and chain to hold the said bear while fishing or washing himself in the river Thames. In 1256 they were directed to build a house in the Tower for an elephant which had been presented to the king by Louis, King of France, which house is directed to be "forty feet long and twenty feet deep;" and a second writ occurs in which they were ordered to provide necessaries for him and his keepers. From various orders during the reigns of Edward I., II., and III., we learn that the allowance for each lion or leopard was sixpence a day, and the wages of their keeper three halfpence. At later periods the office of keeper of the lions was held by some person of quality about the king, with a fee of sixpence a day for himself, and the same for every lion or leopard under his charge. On these terms it was granted by King Henry VI., first to Robert Mansfield, Esq., marshall of his hall, and afterwards to Thomas Rookes, his dapifer. It was not unfrequently held by the lieutenant or constable of the Tower himself, on the condition of his providing a sufficient deputy. There was also another office in the royal household somewhat resembling this in name, that of master guider, and ruler of the king's bears and apes; but the latter animals appear to have been kept solely for the royal "game and pleasure." During all this period, and even almost down to our own times, the common phrase of "seeing the lions" in the Tower appears to have been almost literally correct, for we seldom hear of any other animals confined there than lions or leopards. Howel tells us in his 'Londinopolis,' published in 1657, that there were then six lions in the Tower, and makes no allusion to any other animals as being at that time contained in it. In 1708 some improvement had taken place; for there were then, according to Strype, no fewer than eleven lions, two leopards or tigers (the worthy historian, it seems, knew not which), three eagles, two owls, two cats of the mountain, and a jackal. Maitland gives a much larger catalogue as existing there in 1754; and this is still further extended in a little pamphlet, entitled 'An Historical Description of the Tower and its Curiosities,' published in 1774.

The preceding account of the Tower menagerie is taken from a very beautiful work published in 1829, which contains descriptions and spirited engravings of upwards of sixty different beasts, birds, and reptiles, then in the collection. During the latter part of the eighteenth and early part of the present century, that increasing half-kind of knowledge which sees its deficiencies, and yet is ashamed to acknowledge them, made it be regarded as an amusement fit only for children to visit "the lions" in the Tower. During the busy time of the war also government had enough on its hands, without thinking of the Tower menagerie. In the year 1822, the entire collection consisted of a grizzly bear, an elephant, and one or two birds. At that time Mr. Alfred Cops was appointed keeper of the lions; and that gentleman laboured assiduously to bring up the collection to the improved state of zoological information. The book to which we have referred, 'The Tower Menagerie,' is a fine and beautiful testimony to his abilities and industry. But the establishment of the Zoological Society's Gardens in Regent's Park—an era in the history of zoology in Britain—and the removal of the menagerie at Exeter Change to the Surrey Zoological Gardens, obviated any necessity that might be pleaded for maintaining the Tower menagerie. It has therefore been altogether superseded.

To the removal of the menagerie might be added the removal of the ancient armouries and other curiosities to the British Museum. They scarcely perform the legitimate purpose of their preservation where they now are; and since the transfer of the Mint from within the Tower to the new and splendid building on Tower Hill, the royal fortress has lost nearly all its distinctive marks. Its old terrors as a state-prison are now dead; and with the exception of being still the repository of the regalia and the records, it is become merely an arsenal and a garrison. As an arsenal it is the most important in the empire, being the head-quarters from whence issues the direction of all military stores: but for every other purpose which it now serves, the remaining offices within it might be removed, and the site given up to the encroaching demands of a busy commerce. Its vicinity to the bustle and traffic of the city and river detracts greatly from the picturesque effect of the Tower, though to the reflective observer it teaches a lesson worth infinitely more than mere picturesque effect. The contrast speaks of the mighty change that has passed over society. From the river, however, the view is very fine. And on all sides the citadel, or keep, with its four turrets, are seen rising above the mass of buildings which envelop them. But on the north-west side, next to the city, the walls appear to have built on them a number of mean-looking structures, which give to the Tower, from this point of view, the appearance of being a congeries of buildings brought together without much regard to method or order. On the other side the lofty massive warehouses of St. Katherine's Docks seem almost to overtop the fortress. "Everywhere," says an eloquent writer, "in and about this ancient abode of royal state, neglect has taken place of admiration, vulgar industry has come in the room of courtly sport, and in many instances squalor has usurped the old inheritance of splendour. Even here, however, there is a lesson which is cheering as well as moral:—the place where plots were aforetime hatched, as well against the safety of the kings of England as against the liberties and lives of their subjects—where patriotism has been immured from the light of the sun—and where blood, too pure and ardent in its love of man for the age, has been spilt, is now devoted to the peaceful, the exhilirating and the enriching labours of commerce. Royalty has sped westward, and all that is called fashionable in life has followed; but old father Thames still sweeps along by the Tower, and the burden of his every wave is provision to a thousand of the human race. The great may shift their places of abode, and alter the forms of their observances; but wheresoever Nature places the grand elements of utility, thither will mankind throng and prosper."

It has been contended that the Tower of London is of Roman origin. The controversy, which is of an antiquarian nature, need not be introduced here. Mr.

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Bayley is decidedly of opinion that there is no evidence whatever for such a conclusion; and Messrs. Britton and Brayley go no farther than supposing that the site might have been occupied by the Romans as a station for a military encampment or fortress. They say, "That the Londinium of the Romans was at once a fortress, a fort, and a municipium, is attested by the best-informed historians and antiquaries; and that the site of the present Tower would be the most likely spot to be chosen for a place of defence, is deducible from its situation. It is a tract of land gently raised above the river, the Essex marshes, and those on the opposite side of the Thames, where a fortification was afterwards formed by the Saxons, and called South-Wark."

Whether the Romans occupied the site or not, it is certain that the foundation of the present Tower is subsequent to the Norman conquest. Gray the poet speaks of the "Towers of Julius," and other writers have designated the White Tower as Julius Cæsar's Tower; but in a survey, in order to the repair of the Tower generally, made in , and now existing in the Chapter House at Westminster, though the name is used, yet the ground plans of the fortress of the time of Elizabeth and Charles II. show, that what was then, and is now, called the Salt Tower, was the building so denominated. Mr. Bayley says that no historian whose authority can be relied on furnishes us with the slightest ground for supposing that any fortification of importance ever did exist here until the erection of the citadel or keep, called the White Tower. This was built by command of the Conqueror, under the superintendence of a celebrated military architect, Gundulph, Bishop of Rochester. Whether any other buildings than this central tower or keep were erected in the time of William I. does not appear. It is probable that it was surrounded by some exterior defences. The buildings having been injured by a tempest about the year 1092, repairs and additional fortifications were begun by William Rufus, which were carried forward by Henry I. But the ditch or moat was not thrown round the Tower till nearly a century afterwards. This is stated to have been done by Longchamp, bishop of Ely, who had been appointed Regent during the absence of Richard I. on his crusade. Longchamp is stated to have "enclosed the Tower and Castell of London with an outward wall of stone, imbattailled, and also caused a deepe ditch to be cast about the same."

But the creator of the Tower as a palace was, undoubtedly, Henry III. He bestowed great labour and expense in adorning the interior and extending the fortifications. Two successive similar accidents occurred to the walls and gates which he erected. When first erected they fell down, and were destroyed; and on being reconstructed met with a similar disaster. This was in 1240 and 1241. The cause of these accidents was probably the defective nature of the foundations. The citizens, who regarded the Tower with a jealous eye, and were suspicious of everything done to it, as indicating the power of the sovereign and their weakness, rejoiced at this repeated destruction. Popular belief ascribed the accidents to the interference of Thomas à Becket, the reputed guardian of the city, who was supposed to have risen from his grave for the purpose. The accidents have also been ascribed to earthquakes, though without any appearance of probability. Henry resided in the Tower during a large portion of his troubled reign. "Indeed, to him," says Mr. Bayley, "the Tower owed much of the splendour and importance which it possessed in early ages; and to his time may be ascribed the erection of some of the most interesting of the buildings that are now extant. The records of that era, which abound with curious entries, evincing Henry's great and constant zeal for the promotion of the fine arts, contain many interesting orders which he gave for works of that kind to be executed in different parts of the Tower. The royal chapels there, as well as the great hall and the king's chamber of state, are subjects of frequent and curious mention."

The last additions to the Tower considered to be of any importance were made by Edward I. Whatever has been subsequently done has consisted of repairs and re-edifications.

By the time of Henry VIII. the Tower had been falling into disuse as a royal residence, being only used on state occasions and at intervals of alarm. As a state prison, however, it rose into a horrid celebrity during Henry's reign, which character was tolerably well sustained during the reigns of his two daughters, and of those of the Stuarts. The old ceremonies of holding a court in the Tower, and proceeding in state through the city to Westminster previous to a coronation, were kept up, with some variations, till the reign of James II., when they were finally omitted. All the domestic apartments in the palace were taken down during James's reign, and that of William and Mary.

But in every reign great attention was paid to keeping the Tower in a state of repair. Various surveys and reports were made, describing its existing state and condition at the time, and pointing out the repairs which were requisite to be done. On the junction of the two kingdoms under James I. the rising spirit of commerce began to fill the port of London, and encroachments were made on the Tower precincts. By a report made in 1620, it appears that the Tower, which is set forth as having been fortified not only within the walls, ditches, and wharf, but care also taken in the Minories for the lodging of the principal officers, had, through the evil example and toleration of some lieutenants, been much encroached upon; whereby the limits of the Tower, and of those other habitations and storehouses appointed for the public use, were perverted to private profit, "the splendour and magnificence of the said royal castle being by that means defaced, and the place itself, as it were, besieged in the wharf, ditches, and liberties thereof." Various alterations took place at this and subsequent times, for the purpose of remedying evils which were complained of.

Towards the end of the eighteenth century the Tower had been greatly neglected; the ditch was choked and looked like a stagnant pool, and the fortifications were out of repair. But in 1792, in consequence of apprehensions which were entertained, great exertions were made to put it into a suitable state of defence; the ditch was cleared out, and the water once more admitted to flow in from the Thames; flood-gates were constructed, and the walls and parapet of the counterscarp were repaired. It is now kept in a clean and efficient state, and though, from the number of old houses within it, and on the walls or parapet, it could not stand a modern cannonading with the destructive engines now employed, which would reduce it to ruin in an hour or two, it must have been a place of considerable strength formerly; and even now it could withstand an irregular assault. The visitor who has not seen a fortified city may regard the Tower as a representation of one in miniature.

Of the buildings of the Tower, as they now stand, the White Tower is, as already mentioned, the most conspicuous, and the most ancient. It stands nearly in the centre of the inner ward. It is "a massive quadrangular structure, measuring 116 feet from north to south, and 96 feet east and west; its height is 92 feet; and at the south-east end is a semicircular projection of about 22 feet. The summit of the walls is embattled, and at each angle is an elevated turret rising considerably above the roof; that at the north-east angle, which is the highest and largest, forms an irregular circle, projecting considerably from the main walls, and

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[Interior of the Horse Armoury.]

containing the great staircase of communication throughout the building. This turret was formerly called the Observatory, it having been used for astronomical purposes by the celebrated Flamsteed, in Charles II.'s reign, before the erection of the Royal Observatory at Greenwich*."

"The exterior," says Mr. Bayley, speaking of the White Tower, "has undergone so many repairs, that it is now difficult to trace any part of its primitive character: the windows, particularly those belonging to the two lower stories, have been greatly increased in dimensions, and the surface has been so generally coated with a mixture of flints, mortar, rubble work, and modern masonry, as to leave but little of the original mode of construction visible. In some parts, however, of the south and east sides, just above the projecting base or splay, two courses of beautiful well-squared stone are occasionally met with, laid in beds of mortar, composed of lime and sea-sand, containing shells and small pieces of flint, and forming a joint of about three-quarters of an inch in thickness; but whether this finished masonry was continued higher or not, is now difficult to determine, though from some detached fragments, which are to be seen in other parts of the building, at different elevations, it is rendered extremely probable that all, or a great portion, of the exterior facing was of a similar nature." To this extract Messrs. Britton and Brayley append the following observation: "In support of this opinion, we may state, that it was a very common practice in the Norman times to face exterior walls with small pieces of squared stone."

The designation by which this building has been long known, namely, the White Tower, is conjectured, with considerable appearance of probability, to have arisen from an ancient practice of whitening over the exterior walls. In a mandate of the year 1241, issued by Henry III., which is still extant, the practice of whitening the walls is twice alluded to.

The White Tower, though constituting, in fact, the original Tower of London, and having been the royal residence, is not open to the inspection of the general visitor. Under the basement floor are capacious vaults; the interior consists of three lofty stories, divided longitudinally, from the base to the summit, by a wall seven feet in thickness. The first or basement floor over the vaults, besides two spacious rooms, used as store-houses, contains a singular apartment, which appears to have been originally intended for a prison. It occupies the south-east corner of the floor; the walls were sixteen feet thick; light was admitted by four narrow loop-holes, which are now, however, widened to the extent of four feet. In this dungeon it is traditionally, but not authentically, stated that Sir Walter Raleigh was confined, and that it was here he wrote his celebrated 'History of the World.' The great majority of the state prisoners were not confined in the White Tower, but in a tower at the north-west side of the inner ward, now used as the mess-room of the officers of the garrison, and also in other towers round the inner ward. But prisoners were confined in the dungeon on the basement floor of the White Tower during the reign of Queen Mary, as is evident from the remains of inscriptions written on the walls.

The communication between the basement floor and the first story of the White Tower is chiefly by a spacious staircase within the circular part of the north-east extremity of the building, the vaulting of which appears to have been constructed in the same manner as the

* Britton and Brayley's 'Memoirs of the Tower,' p. 243.

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dungeon or prison. On the first floor is a chapel, in a very bold style of Norman architecture, which is now appropriated as a repository for records. This chapel is directly over the prison on the basement floor, and occupies the entire space from the first story to the roof. It is supposed to have been anciently used for the private devotions of the royal family when residing here, but it is uncertain when it was first appropriated to its present use. It is known to have been a repository for records as early as Charles II.'s time. It is not likely, as has been remarked, that its dilapidation would have been suffered as long as the ortress remained a royal residence.

"In point of division, the uppermost story exactly corresponds with those beneath it; but the rooms are much loftier, and, from the originality of their appearance, excite a greater degree of interest. In that called the Council Chamber (which is the largest apartment, and reputed to be the place where councils were assembled when the reigning monarch held his court in the Tower), the roof is sustained by vast beams of timber, disposed in transverse and horizontal framework, and supported by two rows of transverse posts. This arrangement has every appearance of high antiquity, and harmonizes exceedingly well with the grand and substantial features of the other parts of the building. The eastern wall is pierced by five lofty openings, with semicircular arches, but without ornament or moulding of any kind, which communicate with the adjoining room: one of these is partly closed with a thin partition, in which is a smaller opening, equally plain, and assimilating in character to the arch over it. It was at a council sitting in this chamber that, as traditionally affirmed, the Protector Gloucester ordered Lord Hastings to be led to instant execution, and commanded the arrest of the Archbishop of York, the Bishop of Ely, and Lord Stanley.

"The whole of this floor is now annexed to the Record Office, the largest apartment having been so appropriated at the instance of Mr. Lysons, the late keeper of the records, in 1811. Additional light has been admitted into both apartments by the insertion of windows in the roof*."

The entire White Tower may be termed a storehouse, one portion being reserved for armouries, containing many thousand stands of arms, the other portion being used as a Record store. The military stores comprise gunpowder, armourers' tools, small arms, cavalry and nautical weapons, suits of armour, &c.

The south and north sides of the enclosure in which the White Tower stands are formed by two extended and handsome brick ranges of buildings; the south range being the Ordnance Office, the north range the Grand Storehouse, or repository of modern military weapons, principally of small arms ready for use. The pediment over the main entrance of the latter is adorned with sculptured royal arms and trophies, designed by the famous Grinling Gibbons. At the north-west extremity of the pavement in front of the Grand Storehouse is the church, or chapel, of the Tower, which was erected in the time of Edward I. It is supposed to occupy the site of a chapel still more ancient. It is a low edifice, void of all ornament, without buttress or battlement, but having a small tower at the west end, surmounted by a bell-turret. The dimensions of this church are sixty-six feet in length, fifty-four in breadth, and twenty-four from the floor to the roof. The chief interest of the chapel arises from its being the resting-place of many illustrious persons, who either died in the Tower, or were decapitated on Tower Hill.

Here lie Gerald Fitzgerald, ninth Earl of Kildare, and Lord Deputy of Ireland—the representative of one of the bravest and proudest of the Anglo-Hibernian families—who being committed to the Tower on a charge of treason, died of a broken heart; Anne Boleyn, the unfortunate, and Katherine Howard, the guilty wife, of Henry VIII., with several of their friends and relations; Thomas Cromwell, the instrument, favourite, and victim of Henry; the Duke of Somerset, Northumberland, and Lady Jane Grey, with her husband; the Duke of Norfolk, who was beheaded for aspiring to the hand of Mary, queen of Scots; his son the Earl of Arundel; the brave but rash favourite of Elizabeth, the Earl of Essex; and, amongst others, three of the Scotch lords who suffered for the rebellion of 1745.

This chapel was subjected to the episcopal authority of the Bishop of London by Edward VI., which was confirmed by Queen Mary.

Under James I. the right of the chaplain of the Tower to perform the ceremonies of marriage and baptism was questioned, but the right has been since fully recognized and established.

The advowson belongs to the crown, and the chaplain receives from the Exchequer a yearly salary of 115*l.* 5*s.*

The armouries in the Tower may be described as three: the "Horse Armoury," "Queen Elizabeth's Armoury," and the "Small-arms Armoury," in which are piled immense stores of small arms ready for immediate issue. The two first armouries are repositories of ancient weapons and armour kept for exhibition—the third not merely for exhibition, but use.

A few years ago the state of indiscriminate confusion in which the collection of ancient weapons and armour was exhibited, and the startling names and uses which were assigned them, was a subject of regret or ridicule to intelligent persons. Dr. Meyrick, in his work on 'Ancient Armour,' which was published in 1824, called public attention to it; and on his representations government accepted his offer of gratuitously arranging the collection in historical order. A building was erected in 1825 for the purpose of containing the equestrian figures. The improvement which has been introduced into the ancient armouries has in some measure been extended to the guide-book which is sold to visitors at the Tower. But the spectator is still told, *viva voce*, a few of the old strange stories, which perhaps habit has rendered too familiar to be easily forgotten.

The wood-cut given in the present Number represents the interior of the "Horse Armoury." A reference to it will convey a clearer idea of the contents and arrangement of this collection than a mere verbal description. Before the year 1825 this armoury was a mass of confusion. Armour of the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries was placed on figures, to which the names of historical characters of the eleventh and twelfth centuries were assigned. On the representations of Dr. Meyrick, made personally, and in his 'Critical Inquiry into Ancient Armour,' (3 vols. 4to., 1824,) the attention of government was drawn to the subject; and as that gentleman kindly offered to take the trouble of placing the entire collection in chronological and historical order, arrangements were made for the purpose. A new building was erected in 1825, to contain the "Horse Armoury." This was constructed from the designs and under the superintendence of Mr. Wright, clerk of the Works to the Board of Ordnance. It is a one-storied building, erected along the south side of the White Tower. The interior of the building is an apartment 149 feet in length, and 33 in width. It is divided into two unequal parts or walks, the equestrian figures occupying the centre. In front of the equestrian figures are a number of figures intended to represent men at arms, bowmen, pikemen, &c., along with a variety of weapons and armour.

* 'Memoirs of the Tower,' p. 253.

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Behind is a quantity of armour and weapons, of different ages, but principally of the fifteenth, sixteenth, and seventeenth centuries, along with a number of figures, neatly and tastefully arranged. The whole collection is exceedingly interesting, and is probably one of the finest armouries in Europe.

The origin of collections of this nature is thus described by Dr. Meyrick:—"The several armouries of Europe seem to have first taken their form in the sixteenth century. The emperors Maximilian I. and Charles V., and the kings Henry VIII. and Francis I. are the monarchs to whom the foundation of these collections is to be attributed, and who lived in the last age of chivalric splendour. The consequence is, that although in private families a few suits of earlier date had been preserved in Italy, that of Maximilian, with its steel cam boys, and that of Henry VII. resembling it, are the oldest specimens in Germany and England. When, however, these collections were formed, the names of warriors, long antecedent, were given to them; and as at that time chronology of costume was never attended to like the paintings of the day, they were readily taken as faithful representations. Hence the Ambras collection now at Vienna, though containing armour of the same period as the suits in the Tower, has, equally with this, been asserted to possess specimens of antiquity*."

The commencement of the collection of royal and equestrian figures in the "Horse Armoury" was in 1686, when Gibbons, the well-known sculptor, carved two, intended to represent the two Charleses. The collection gradually accumulated; and being intended merely for a show, the figures were clothed in pieces of armour taken from the Tower stores at random, and were named as whim or fancy dictated. The arrangement which is now made renders the collection a study.

Only twelve out of the entire number of suits of armour in this collection can be positively identified. The others were made up by Dr. Meyrick, from his knowledge or supposition of the style or fashion of the age. Over each figure is a banner, on which the name assigned to the figure, and the presumed date, are inscribed. We copy the list from Messrs. Britton and Brayley, as it shows how they have been made up:—

"1272. Edward I., King of England, in the act of sheathing his sword. The hauberk, hood, sleeves, and chausses of the armour, although not actually of this period, have been fabricated from portions of ancient chain mail. On the surcoat, by which the hauberk is partially concealed, and on the shield, are depicted the royal arms.

"1450. King Henry VI., in plate armour, of peculiar workmanship; the back and breast-plates being flexible. The sleeves and skirt are of mail; the *sollerets*, or coverings for the feet, are pointed: the gauntlets are tastefully formed and wrought. In the right hand, the figure holds a weapon, formerly shown, in the small armoury, as the *Lochaber-axe* with which Colonel Gardiner was killed at the battle of Preston Pans; but in reality it is a general's pole-axe, of German workmanship, and of the same date as the armour. The saddle, which is of bone-work, bearing a German inscription, is particularly curious: the caparisons are of velvet, embroidered with the arms of France and England.

"1465. King Edward IV., in an iron-studded tilting suit, consisting of back and breast-plate, burgonet helmet, guard for the bridle-arm, gauntlets, *jambieres*, or coverings for the legs, and slipper stirrups with ancle guards. The lance is modern, but its vam-plate, of a prior age, is exceedingly curious. The housing of the horse is of black velvet, powdered with the king's badges; namely, the white rose and the sun.

"1508. King Henry VII., in a suit of fluted steel, probably of German manufacture, consisting of a burgonet helmet, with open *mentoniere*, or chin-piece, and visor; globular breast-plate, with *placate* and back-plate; tasses, or skirts; *garde de reine;* vam-braces and rear-braces, connected by elbow pieces; *genouillieres*, or armour for the knees, with demi-cuisses affixed; jambieres and sollerets. The horse is accoutred in the *manefaire*, *chanfron* with ear-pieces, *poitral* and *croupiere;* war-saddle, with burr and cantel, faced with steel.

"1509. King Henry VIII., in a tilting helmet, with rising beavor and visor; a pouldron for the left shoulder, with shifting pass-guard gorget; breast-plate, with placate; back-plate, vam-brace, and rear-brace, with shifting elbow-caps; fixed gauntlet for the sword hand, and tilting gauntlet on the bridle hand; tassets, demi-cuisses with genouillieres; jambieres to the ancle, and sollerets. In the right hand is a *martel de fer*, and, on the left side, an arming sword. This suit is richly inlaid with gold. The horse wears a chanfron, with spiral spike, manefaire, poitral, and croupiere, in three pieces. The bow and cantel of the war-saddle are faced with steel, and the stirrups are richly engraved. This is the first of the suits of armour which has been positively identified. The others, of known appropriation, will be marked by asterisks.

"1520. Charles Brandon, Duke of Suffolk, in plate armour, very similar to that last described.

"1535. Edward Clinton, Earl of Lincoln, in a richly-gilt suit, formerly shewn as that of King George the Second. This exhibits little variation from the two preceding suits.

"1552. King Edward VI., in russet armour, richly-embossed and gilt, formerly shown by the warders as that of Edward the Black Prince. This is an exquisite specimen of art.

"1555. Francis Hastings, Earl of Huntingdon, in a suit of plate armour, richly gilt, in slashes.

"1560. Robert Dudley, Earl of Leicester. The armour of this nobleman, as stated by Dr. Meyrick, was formerly kept in the tilt-yard, and there exhibited on particular days. On different parts of it are engraved the initials R. D., the collar of the garter, the figure of Saint Michael, and the Earl's badge, the ragged staff. It appears to have been originally gilt.

"1570. Sir Henry Lee, Master of the Armouries, and Champion to Queen Elizabeth, in a plain suit, formerly attributed to William the Conqueror.

"1585. Robert Devereux, Earl of Essex, in armour richly engraved and inlaid with gold. It was worn by the Champion of England at the Coronation of King George the Second. In the right hand of the figure is a Maltese sword, of curious workmanship.

"1605. King James I., in a plain suit, formerly shown as that of Henry IV. He holds, in a perpendicular direction, a tilting-lance, fourteen feet in length, and, in the thickest part, two feet three inches in circumference, used for running at the ring.

"1606. Sir Horace Vere, Captain-General, holding in his right hand a small mace.

"1608. Thomas Howard, Earl of Arundel. This figure, also, is armed with a mace.

"1612. Henry, Prince of Wales, son of King James I. The armour is richly gilt, and engraven with representations of battles, sieges, and other military subjects. A steel mace is suspended from the saddle bow, and a Toledo sword rests on the right stirrup.

"1618. George Villiers, Duke of Buckingham, in plain armour, formerly shown as that of Henry the

* Meyrick, Critical Inquiry into Ancient Armour, vol. iii. 125.

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Sixth. The figure is grasping a wheel-lock petronel, the stock of which is of ebony, inlaid with ivory and mother-of-pearl.

"1620. Charles, Prince of Wales, when, apparently, about twelve years of age. The armour is richly-engraved and gilt.

"1635. Thomas Wentworth, Earl of Strafford. The only peculiarity in this suit is, that it descends no lower than the knees, armour for the legs having been about that time discontinued.

"1640. King Charles I. The armour, which is curiously wrought, and entirely gilt, was presented to him, when Prince of Wales, by the City of London.

"1685. King James II. His dress consists of a drab-coloured coat, with covered buttons and silver lace, which partially covers a waistcoat of bright blue velvet. His only defensive armour is a cuirass, a long gauntlet, and a helmet, the grating of which represents the royal arms, and also bears the letters I. R. II. The saddle, holsters, &c. are of velvet, richly-embroidered with gold lace; the pistols, which the latter contain, are curiously inlaid with silver and ivory. This figure stands in advance of the platform, against the eastern wall."

It would have been better, when this collection was reformed by Dr. Meyrick, if the old practice of giving names to the figures had been abandoned. The majority of the visitors are apt to consider them as "lively effigies" of the historical characters whose names they bear, instead of regarding them as representations of the fashion of the panoply of a knight or warrior of the age to which they are referred. This objection is partly obviated in those figures which are clothed in armour known to have belonged to the individuals: but anything which tends to degrade the collection into a mere show runs counter to what should be its prime object.

The armour worn by the Normans was a defensive dress made of small minute iron rings, joined together, so as to resemble, at a distance, a clothing of net-work. Of this ringed or chain-mail Dr. Meyrick had not met with any perfect specimen when he arranged the collection in its present form. There has been since obtained, however, a suit of this chain-mail, which is supposed to be of the age of Stephen, and, consequently, upwards of 700 years old. If the authenticity of this suit is ascertained with any degree of probability, it is perhaps the only perfect specimen extant of the age to which it is referred. It is placed on a figure intended to represent a "Norman Crusader on horseback," and it is certainly one of the most curious objects in the room.

This chain-mail, though uncouth and clumsy, was calculated to preserve the wearer from the projectiles then in common use—the arrow sent home by the force of the arm, or the stone propelled by the sling. But as improvements were made in destructive engines, the chain-mail gave place to the scale-armour, and this again to the massive cumbrous pieces of plate-armour with which the warriors of a later date sheltered themselves from the arrow projected by the cross-bow, or from the murderous blow of the battle-axe. An example of the scale and plate armour may be seen on the first figure in the wood-cut, to which the date of 1272 is given. This, with the exception of the suit of chain-mail, is the oldest in the collection: it is made up from old pieces of armour.

From 1272 there is a transition of nearly two centuries. The next figure has the date 1450 assigned to it, with the name of Henry VI. It is in plate armour of peculiar workmanship.

There are but fifteen years of difference between this and the adjoining figure, to which the name of Edward IV., and the date of 1465, are given. The remaining figures all belong to the sixteenth century, "the last age of chivalric splendour," and the seventeenth, when armour was worn more for show than use, and towards the latter part of which the "fashion" disappeared. A second equestrian figure wearing a suit of armour, which is positively identified as having belonged to Henry VIII., is placed in a recess in the wall, in front of the range of equestrian figures. It is clothed in a curious suit of armour, which was presented to Henry by the emperor Maximilian I., on Henry's marriage with Katharine of Aragon. This is the most splendid in the collection. It is washed with silver, and covered with engravings.

In this recess are also placed two small figures, each accoutred in armour known to have belonged to the young princes represented, Henry and Charles, sons of James I. Over the figure of Henry VIII. is a Latin inscription, purporting that in the reign of George IV., the Duke of Wellington being Master of the Ordnance, the collection was historically arranged by Dr. Meyrick. To this the date 1826 is affixed.

The figures on foot in front of the equestrian range represent—a foot soldier of 1540 in dark armour; a swordsman of 1506 in half-armour, with a puckered velvet skirt; a pikeman of the time of Charles I. in brown armour, studded with brass nails; and an archer of the year 1590. This figure is attired in a brigandine jacket, or doublet, containing pieces of iron, and curiously quilted; sleeves and skirts of green, long hose, and square-toed shoes. In the right hand is a bow, and on the same side a quiver of arrows.

In the rear of the equestrian figures, on a raised platform within a recess, which occupies nearly three-fourths of the length of the building, is placed a great variety of arms and armour, tastefully disposed. A large portion of it is composed of the armour, weapons, and ensigns used in the civil war in the time of Charles I. There are also figures of Knights of Malta, and a representation of St. George and the Dragon, as the guide-book says, "nearly as large as life," and exhibiting the saint "in the very act of killing the dragon with a spear." The body of the dragon, and a bed of rushes on which it is supposed to be crouching, are composed of sword-blades.

It is to be regretted that this collection is not placed where the visiter, if he wished it, could leisurely and repeatedly examine it. A mere sight of the collection is surely not the object in view in its preservation, for that conveys no information. An ingenious person making himself acquainted with the nature and uses of the arms and armour used in former periods would find his study of history greatly aided; while to the artist and mechanic an examination of the progress of the art of the armourer in different periods would prove, if not beneficial, at least interesting. The necessity of being attended by a warder, and the sum paid for a sight of the armouries, is an effectual barrier. Few will willingly pay a second time for a hasty and unsatisfactory inspection. The consequence is, that the visiters are composed mostly, if not entirely, of people from the country who visit London, especially in the summer, and to whom the Tower is one of the sights of the metropolis; and of foreigners who cannot be thereby influenced in favour of our taste or generosity.

*** The Office of the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge is at 59, Lincoln's Inn Fields.

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